3 The Fall of the ‘Communist Monuments’

Since the fall of the Berlin Wall in November 1989, statues and monuments have been widely featured in the Western media. Indeed, although statues and monuments tend now and again to be used and misused for political purposes, they had not collectively benefited from such a paradoxical resurrection for a long time.1 I have already alluded to Paul Veyne’s estimation that monuments mostly belong to the species of ‘works of art without spectators’. Back in 1927 Robert Musil had stated even more strongly that they are, so to speak, ‘impregnated against attention’ and ‘withdraw from our senses’.2 Neither had the end of other dictatorships in southern Europe or Latin America, which had included the destruction of statues, given them a comparable publicity. This has, of course, to do with the number of objects concerned and with their significance in the Communist states, a topic to which I shall return. But it also has to do with the visual and symbolic effectiveness of the imagery that was abused, defaced, pulled to the ground or thrown aside. The literal fall of a monument seems to be predestined to symbolize the metaphorical fall of the regime that had ordered its erection. The opposition of high and low, large and small, and the reversal of their hierarchical relationships, evoke stories and images of David and Goliath or Gulliver and the Lilliputians (illus. 22, 24, 29), as well as vanitas connotations comparable to those eighteenth-century landscape-garden follies designed by architects that recalled ruins in the Roman Campagna. The fall of images seems to tell of a revenge of the numerous and powerless over the few and mighty, of the living over the petrified, a process with which every spectator can only sympathize. And once the statue has gone, the pedestal that is left possesses its own symbolic potentialities. On the subject of the melting down of bronzes during the Second World War, Paul Claudel observed that ‘a Mallarméan Paris was suddenly peopled with pedestals dedicated to absence’; Russia could similarly be defined in 1993 as ‘the land of empty pedestals’.3 It should be noted in passing that the widespread abandonment of the use of pedestals by modern sculptors has often been associated with a critical rejection of monumentality and of its hierarchical connotations; Daniel Buren, opposing modern sculptures to traditional statues, once asked whether ‘a statue lying flat – for example, one that is knocked down during a revolution – automatically becomes a sculpture’.4

自1989年11月柏林墙倒塌以来，雕像与纪念碑频频出现在西方媒体上。诚然，雕像与纪念碑本就不时被用于、或误用于政治目的，但它们如此集体地经历一场悖论式的复活，却已是久违之事。1　我此前已提及保罗·韦纳的判断：纪念碑大多属于“没有观众的艺术品”这一类别。早在1927年，罗伯特·穆齐尔就更为尖锐地指出，它们可谓“对注意力具有免疫力”，并“从我们的感官中隐退”。2　南欧或拉丁美洲其他独裁政权的垮台——其中也包括雕像被捣毁——并未给它们带来可与之相比的曝光度。这当然与涉及对象的数量、以及它们在共产主义国家中的分量有关，这一话题我还会再论。但这也与那些被辱骂、污损、拉倒、弃置的图像在视觉与象征上的效力有关。一座纪念碑字面意义上的倒塌，似乎注定要去象征那座下令将其竖起的政权在隐喻意义上的垮台。高与低、大与小的对立及其等级关系的颠倒，令人联想到大卫与歌利亚、格列佛与小人国的故事与图像（图22、24、29），也带有一种虚空（vanitas）意味，可与十八世纪建筑师们在风景园中设计的、令人联想到罗马郊野废墟的“嬉游建筑”相提并论。图像的倒塌，仿佛讲述了多数无权者对少数当权者、活人对石化之物的复仇——这一过程，每一位旁观者都只能寄予同情。而雕像一旦消失，留下的基座本身便具有了新的象征潜能。谈及二战期间铜像被熔毁一事，保罗·克洛岱尔曾写道：“一个马拉美式的巴黎突然遍布了献给缺席的基座”；同样，1993年的俄国也可被定义为“空基座之国”。3　顺带一提，现代雕塑家普遍放弃使用基座，这常与对纪念性及其等级意味的批判性拒斥联系在一起；丹尼尔·布伦将现代雕塑与传统雕像相对照时曾发问：“一尊平躺的雕像——例如在革命中被推倒的那尊——是否就自动变成了一件雕塑？”4

23 The destruction of the Church of Christ-the-Saviour, Moscow, in 1931.

图23 1931年，莫斯科救世主大教堂被拆毁。



Another disputed question with ideological implications is the amount of responsibility that Lenin (and thus the 'original' revolution) had in the development of Communist propaganda and specifically of the personality cult. Among others, Albert Boime considers that Lenin would have been content with the erection of 'temporary monuments that would never exist long enough to outlast their topical significance'.23 But the ephemeral character of the first revolutionary monuments, in the wake of the agit-prop movement, may have been due to a lack of time and means more than to any objection to permanence. In any case, Lenin's death in 1924 and the dispute among the leading Bolsheviks about the embalming of his corpse saw the defeat of the rationalists like Trotsky, who considered that the veneration of relics belonged to the abolished practices of the Eastern Church, and the victory of Stalin, who made deliberate use of religious rhetoric and channelled the emotions and symbolism of mourning to the advantage of his power and legitimacy.24

另一个带有意识形态意味的争议问题，是列宁（以及"原初"革命）在共产主义宣传——尤其是个人崇拜——的形成中究竟负有多大责任。阿尔伯特·博伊姆等人认为，列宁满足于竖立"临时性纪念碑，让它们存在的时间短到不足以超过其当下意义"。23 但紧随宣传鼓动运动之后出现的第一批革命纪念碑之所以短暂，或许更多是由于时间与手段的匮乏，而非反对永久性。无论如何，1924年列宁去世，布尔什维克领导层就其遗体防腐问题发生争执，最终以托洛茨基等理性主义者的失败、斯大林的胜利告终：前者认为圣物崇拜属于已被废除的东正教实践；后者则有意识地借用宗教修辞，把哀悼之情与象征符号引向有利于自身权力与合法性的方向。24

The evolution and extent of the cults of Lenin and Stalin need not detain us here.25 What is important for our purpose is their quasi-religious character, which may have benefited from both the heritage and repression of Orthodox Christianity, notably in the realm of images and their use. Many authors stress the cult-like rather than artistic status of official Communist portraits and monuments, and witnesses point to the fusion of image and prototype on which their intended function was based.26 A retired Russian explains, for instance, how in Magnitogorsk, in April 1938, workers were terrified by the unexpected task of having to erect a seven-ton bronze statue of Stalin and were interrupted by the representative of authority when they passed a cable around its neck to that purpose.27 Another related trait is the inflation of images and the statue-mania that spread throughout the whole Soviet Union, and, after the Second World War, throughout the other Communist countries. The figure of Lenin, which later took on the role of substitution in the context of de-Stalinization, was paramount, and the number of 'monuments' (including busts and effigies) dedicated to him in Russia alone could be estimated in 1994 at 70,000.28 But Lenin and (for a time) Stalin were not alone, and leaders and martyrs as well as local and national heroes of Communism were selected for monumentalization, not to speak of the countless emblems and verbal elements of official memory and propaganda, such as street names. The purpose of contributing to the formation of a new man and a new society had developed into a permanent historical and ideological legitimation of party and state, and a menacing affirmation – expressed by the trend to gigantism, even if allegories were abandoned for 'personalized' representations – of the primacy of the collective over the individual.

列宁与斯大林崇拜的演变与规模，此处不必详述。25 对我们而言重要的是它们的准宗教性格——这种性格或许既得益于东正教的遗产，又得益于对东正教的压制，尤其是在图像及其使用领域。许多作者强调，官方共产主义肖像与纪念碑具有的是崇拜性格而非艺术性格；目击者也指出，形象与原型之间的融合正是其预期功能的基础。26 一位退休的俄国人举例讲述，1938年4月在马格尼托哥尔斯克，工人们突然接到竖立一尊七吨重斯大林铜像的任务，惊恐万状；当他们为吊装而把钢索绕过像颈时，还被当局代表制止。27 另一个相关特征是图像的膨胀与雕像狂热，它们蔓延到整个苏联，并在二战后蔓延到其他共产主义国家。列宁的形象后来在去斯大林化过程中承担了替代角色，其地位至高无上；仅在俄国，献给他的"纪念碑"（包括胸像和全身像）在1994年估计就有七万座。28 但并非只有列宁和（一度的）斯大林：共产主义的领袖与烈士、地方与民族英雄都被挑选出来加以纪念碑化，更不必说官方记忆与宣传中无数的徽章和语词元素，如街道名称。塑造"新人"与"新社会"这一目的，已发展为对党和国家的永久性历史与意识形态辩护；而那种巨型化趋势——即便寓言式形象已被"个性化"再现所取代——也构成了对集体高于个人这一原则的咄咄逼人的肯定。

These characters, functions and aims hardly called for an innovative and independent art. It is therefore not surprising that sculpture in particular would have been submitted to the political control that progressively extended over all the visual arts and culture in the Soviet Union and the countries of ‘existing socialism’.29 But this was not only a matter of ‘propaganda’ in the narrow sense. In conformity with the Leninist theory of ‘reflection’, art had to give adequate and legible images of ‘Soviet reality’. The doctrine of Socialist Realism required its strict subordination to a discursive message, reducing as far as possible the ambiguity and specificity of visual communication.30 Not only was the self-proclaimed avant-garde eliminated, but modern Western models (ultimately including Impressionism) were rejected as decadent and ‘formalist’, to the benefit of a classicizing ‘realism’ inspired by nineteenth-century Russian painting. As far as sculpture was concerned, the requirements of ‘typical generalization’ and ‘detailed legibility’ condemned all previous geometrizing experiments, while the use of concrete, frequent before the War, was rejected in favour of materials traditionally regarded as artistic, such as bronze, marble and granite.31 Homogeneity and consensus were obtained by means of a state monopolization of artistic life and institutions, and the Russian model – sometimes including its works and artists – was imposed on the whole Communist world.

这种性格、功能与目的，几乎不可能催生一种创新而独立的艺术。因此毫不奇怪，雕塑——尤其是雕塑——会被置于政治控制之下，而这种控制逐渐扩展到苏联及“现实存在的社会主义”国家的全部视觉艺术与文化。29 但这不仅是狭义“宣传”的问题。按照列宁主义的“反映”论，艺术必须提供关于“苏联现实”的充分而清晰的图像。社会主义现实主义的学说要求艺术严格服从于一种话语性信息，尽可能削减视觉传达的模糊性与特殊性。30 不仅自我宣称的先锋派被清除，西方现代模式（最终包括印象派）也被斥为颓废和“形式主义”，取而代之的是一种受十九世纪俄国绘画启发、古典化的“现实主义”。就雕塑而言，“典型化概括”与“细节清晰可读”的要求否定了此前一切几何化实验；战前常用的混凝土也被弃用，转而采用传统上被视为艺术材料的青铜、大理石和花岗岩。31 同质性与共识通过国家对艺术生活和机构的垄断来达成；俄国模式——有时连其作品和艺术家一起——被强加给整个共产主义世界。

Were the monuments of the Communist era received as intended, or did they also prove to be in the long run ‘immunized against attention’? Answers to such a question are bound to be not only diverse but contradictory. According to a witness from Prague, statues had to be protected by the police against misuse, but failed to attract any attention apart from apparatchiks and pigeons.32 For other categories of the public, a broad reinterpretation seems nevertheless to have taken place, transforming the symbols into symptoms, for instance the figure of the leader showing the masses the way into an allegory of the people’s oppression.33 Even if only implicit, or even unconscious, by necessity, irony thus transformed the statues spiritually and paved the way to their physical transformation or displacement once the power they stood for could no longer prevent it. Signs of this desecration and of an ironical distancing typical for the ‘humour culture’ of resistance in totalitarian regimes can be found in the deflationary nicknames spontaneously given to emphatic works, such as ‘The Sad Ones’ for the monument to the fraternity of arms erected immediately after the War to the ‘glory of the heroes of the Soviet army’ in Warsaw.34

共产主义时代的纪念碑是否如预期那样被接受？还是说它们最终也被证明“对注意力具有免疫力”？对这个问题的回答必然五花八门、甚至彼此矛盾。据一位布拉格目击者称，雕像不得不由警察保护以免遭滥用，但除了党政干部和鸽子之外，并未能吸引任何注意。32 而对另一部分公众来说，一种宽泛的重新阐释似乎仍然发生了：符号被转变成了症状——例如，领袖给群众指路的形象，变成了人民受压迫的寓言。33 反讽即便只是隐含的、甚至必然是无意识的，也由此在精神上改造了雕像，并在它们所代表的权力再也无法阻止的时候，为其物理上的改造或移置铺平了道路。这种亵渎、以及极权政权下抵抗性“幽默文化”特有的反讽式疏离，其迹象可见于人们自发给夸大其词的作品起的贬损性绰号：例如战后不久在华沙为“苏军英雄的光荣”而竖立的“武器兄弟情”纪念碑，被叫做“悲伤者”。34

1956年，布达佩斯

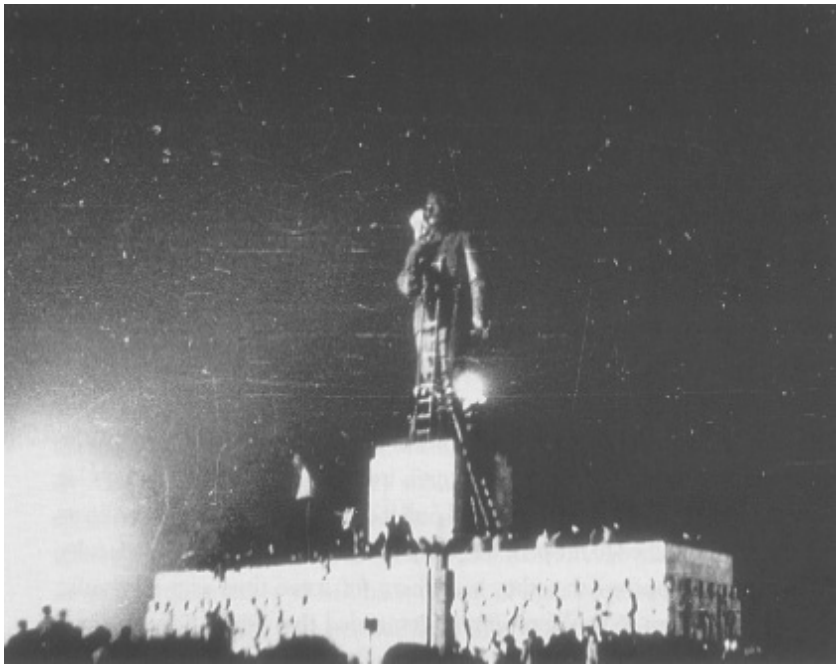
Budapest 1956

Under favourable circumstances, monuments were probably the object of isolated attacks before 1989, particularly after the beginning of perestroika in 1985.35 In fact, they had always been subjected to modifications, removals or eliminations that followed in the wake of the evolution of Soviet power and the Soviet pantheon. But the only real antecedents to the iconoclasm following 1989 must be sought for after Stalin's death in 1953 and in the context of the de-Stalinization ordered in 1956 by Khrushchev. In the vast majority of cases, the elimination of the effigies of Stalin was organized and executed 'from above', and a renewed Lenin cult was called for to prevent any break in the iconic and political continuity.36 In Hungary, however, the revolution of 1956 began with a major iconoclastic action performed 'from below' – the pulling down of the statue of Stalin in Budapest (illus. 24). The event is now relatively well documented, and deserves to be summarized.37 The erection of the monument in 1950–51 had meant the destruction of the Regnum Marianum, a church built under the reactionary regime of Admiral Horthy (1920–44) to commemorate the victims of the leftist Republic of Councils (1919–20).38 Part of the 20,840 kg. of bronze needed for the statue of Stalin was melted down from other monuments that had been damaged or removed for political reasons. Twenty-five of Hungary's best sculptors were invited to compete; the winner was Sándor Mikus.39 The finished bronze standing figure measured 8 metres in height, while its stone pedestal was some 26 metres long and 9 metres high. All major political parades were held in front of it.

在有利条件下，纪念碑在1989年之前或许就已是零星袭击的对象，尤其是1985年改革开始之后。35 事实上，它们一直随着苏联权力和苏联万神殿的演变而被改造、移走或清除。但1989年之后圣像破坏运动的真正先例，只能到1953年斯大林去世之后、到1956年赫鲁晓夫下令去斯大林化的背景中去寻找。在绝大多数情况下，清除斯大林塑像都是"自上"组织和执行的，同时还需要一场新的列宁崇拜，以防止图像与政治连续性出现断裂。36 然而在匈牙利，1956年革命却是以一场"自下"而发的大规模圣像破坏行动——在布达佩斯拉倒斯大林雕像（图24）——拉开序幕的。这一事件如今已有较为充分的文献记载，值得在此简述。38 1950至1951年竖立这座纪念碑，意味着拆毁了圣母王国教堂——这座教堂是在霍尔蒂海军上将的反动政权（1920—1944）时期建造的，为的是纪念左翼苏维埃共和国（1919—1920）的受害者。38 斯大林雕像所需的20,840公斤青铜中，有一部分是从其他因政治原因被损坏或移走的纪念碑熔铸而来。匈牙利二十五位最优秀的雕塑家受邀竞赛，最终由米库什·山多尔（Sándor Mikus）中标。39 完成的青铜立像高8米，石质基座长约26米、高9米。所有重大政治游行都在它面前举行。

24 Preparations for the removal from its pedestal of Sándor Mikus's 1950–51 Stalin Monument, Budapest, on 23 October 1956.

图24　1956年10月23日，布达佩斯，人们正准备从基座上移走米库什·山多尔1950—1951年创作的斯大林纪念碑。



25 Stalin's statue lying on the street, with 'W.C.' graffito on the left cheek. Budapest, 24 October 1956.

图25 倒在街上的斯大林雕像，左脸颊上涂有"W.C."字样。布达佩斯，1956年10月24日。



The idea of the demolition hovered in many minds on the eve of the rising; it was expressed in a tract found on 20 October 1956, showing the crowd pulling down the statue with ropes. Young people obtained tractors from a factory with the help of a Politburo member, and brought them to the monument on 23 October, the day of the great students' demonstration. During the afternoon, somebody hung a board on the figure's neck with the inscription 'Russians, if you take to your heels, please do not leave me behind'. Wire ropes were put round the statue but a torch was needed to cut the statue's leg above the knee before the tractors could pull it down, at 9.30 p.m. As the boots had remained attached to the pedestal, the journal of the students of the faculty of philosophy proposed that they stay there for some time as a memento; others wished them to stay forever and demanded that Stalin Square be renamed 'Boot Square'. The statue had been hauled by a tractor to the front of the National Theatre, where it was mocked, attacked and cut into pieces by people looking for relic-like 'tokens of remembrance of the heretic October days' (illus. 25). The pedestal was later deprived of its reliefs and given a neutral-looking casing to serve as a tribune on parades; all remaining pieces of the monument ended up in museums. Not far from the dismantled monument two new monuments were erected, one to Lenin in 1965 and the other commemorating the Republic of Councils in 1969 (illus. 34). Both were transported in 1993 to the newly created statue park on the periphery of Budapest, and a cross was planted to commemorate the destruction of the Regnum Marianum church.40

起义前夕，拆毁的念头萦绕在许多人心头；1956年10月20日发现的一张传单上就画着群众用绳索拉倒雕像的场面。青年们在一位政治局委员的帮助下从工厂弄来拖拉机，于10月23日——也就是大学生大示威那天——把车开到纪念碑前。下午，有人在像颈上挂了一块牌子，上面写着："俄国人，你们要是逃跑，请别把我落下。"钢索套上了雕像，但还得用割炬在膝盖以上把腿割断，拖拉机才能在晚上九点半把它拉倒。由于靴子还留在基座上，哲学系学生的刊物提议让它们在那里留作一段纪念；另一些人则希望它们永远留下，并要求把斯大林广场改名为"靴子广场"。雕像被拖拉机拖到国家剧院门前，在那里遭到嘲弄、袭击，并被人切成碎片——人们在寻找类似圣物的"异端十月日子的纪念物"（图25）。基座后来被剥去浮雕，套上一层看似中性的外壳，用作阅兵观礼台；纪念碑残存的碎片最终都进了博物馆。在被拆除的纪念碑不远处，又竖起了两座新碑：一座是1965年的列宁碑，另一座是1969年纪念苏维埃共和国的碑（图34）。两者于1993年被运往布达佩斯市郊新建的雕像公园，原地则立起一个十字架，纪念被拆毁的圣母王国教堂。40

巴士底狱、柏林墙与救世主大教堂

The Bastille, the Wall, and the church of Christ-the-Saviour

Analogies between the fall of the monuments of the Communist era and earlier iconoclastic episodes were drawn by observers and participants alike. The great favourite was the French Revolution, the 200th anniversary of which had been celebrated during the summer of 1989. Of course, comparisons dealt with the whole process of change, and were meant, like the use of the term ‘revolution’ itself, to stress its depth, suddenness and universal, epoch-making importance. But another coincidence helped strengthen the parallel: the fact that, in both cases, the seizure of a fortification had given a major signal to the movement. Like the Bastille (illus. 7), the Berlin Wall was an ‘un-intentional monument’, but it had assumed contradictory symbolic functions from the start.41 By 1789 the Bastille was almost empty of prisoners, but was felt to be a threat to the people of Paris. The Wall enclosed West Berlin on all sides, but it also constituted a prison for the inhabitants of the Eastern part. In the evening of 9 November 1989, after the DDR government’s spokesman had mentioned the lifting of all travel restrictions, East Berliners rushed to the Wall and passed through it without hindrance, made breaches into it and danced on top. What they did under the motto ‘We are the people’ deprived the Communist Party of any legitimacy, and the historian Robert Darnton, who was present, felt further convinced that in the eighteenth century as in the twentieth, this delegitimization represented the decisive moment.42 The next day, one of the demonstrators on Alexanderplatz carried a placard with the inscription ‘1789–1989’.43 The fate of the Wall also bears a resemblance to that of the Bastille. Its ‘metaphorical fall’ made it a symbol of (the new) liberty as well as of (the former) submission, and it was immediately and spontaneously broken and sawn into pieces that were taken, given or sold as souvenirs, relics and tokens of the end of the Cold War (illus. 26). Although some East Germans who had been critical of their government subsequently began to consider the now permeable Wall as a part of their menaced identity and a defence against the economic domination of the West, the breaking up continued on a large scale and in more official ways, even becoming a spectacle on television.44 Large pieces were used for various purposes, for instance to neutralize a monument in East Berlin (illus. 32), or as a political gift to be installed in the Vatican Garden or near the Grande Arche de la Défense in Paris.45 Of the 160 km (of which 42 km crossed the city) of the Wall, only a few fragments were preserved in situ. In order to become a memorial, the one in Bernauer Straße will be further shortened from 210 to 60 metres, surrounded by two six-metre-high walls of polished steel and completed with a watch-tower saved from another part of the Wall, according to the results of a 1994 competition that are being opposed by the curators of monuments, who plead for historical authenticity.46 Of course, there were differences between the event in Berlin and the one in Paris. Two that will be discussed later concern the typology of the objects questioned and the kind of arguments used for and against their preservation. A major one is the ‘reactionary’ dimension of a significant part of this new iconoclasm, which was directed against the symbols of regimes that were (more or less) born out of revolutions, understood themselves as ‘revolutionary’ and had partially destroyed the previous cultural heritage.

观察家与参与者都纷纷把共产主义时代纪念碑的倒塌与以往的圣像破坏事件相类比。最受青睐的是法国大革命——其两百周年纪念刚于1989年夏天举行。当然，这种比较针对的是整个变革过程，其用意与使用“革命”一词本身一样，在于强调这场变革的深度、突发性及其普遍的、划时代的意义。但另一桩巧合进一步强化了这种平行：在两个事件中，攻占一座工事都为运动发出了重大信号。与巴士底狱（图7）一样，柏林墙也是一座“无意而为的纪念碑”，但它从一开始就承担着相互矛盾的象征功能。41 到1789年，巴士底狱几乎已空无一人，却仍被视为对巴黎人民的威胁。围墙四面围住西柏林，但它对东部居民来说也是一座监狱。1989年11月9日晚，在东德政府发言人宣布取消一切旅行限制之后，东柏林人涌向墙边，毫无阻碍地穿过、砸开缺口，并在墙顶上跳舞。他们在“我们就是人民”口号下所做的一切，剥夺了共产党的任何合法性；在场的历史学家罗伯特·达恩顿由此更加确信，无论在十八世纪还是二十世纪，这种合法性的丧失都是决定性时刻。42

第二天，亚历山大广场上的一位示威者举着一块牌子，上面写着“1789—1989”。43　柏林墙的命运也与巴士底狱相似。它在“隐喻上的倒塌”使其同时成为（新）自由与（旧）屈从的象征；人们立刻自发地把它砸碎、锯开，把碎片拿走、送人或卖掉，作为冷战结束的纪念物、圣物和信物（图26）。尽管一些曾批评政府的东德人后来开始把这道如今已可穿越的墙视为自身受到威胁的身份的一部分、以及抵御西方经济支配的屏障，但拆毁仍在大规模地、以更官方的方式继续进行，甚至成为电视上的一场奇观。44　大块墙体被派作各种用场，例如用来“中和”东柏林的一座纪念碑（图32），或作为政治礼物安放在梵蒂冈花园或巴黎拉德芳斯大拱门附近。45　在全长160公里（其中42公里横穿市区）的柏林墙中，只有少数几段被原地保留。为了成为纪念馆，鲍瑙大街的那段将从210米进一步缩短为60米，两侧围以两道六米高的抛光钢墙，并配上一座从别处移来的瞭望塔——这是1994年一次竞赛的结果，却遭到文物保护者的反对，他们主张历史真实性。46　当然，柏林事件与巴黎事件之间也存在差异。其中两点将在后文讨论：一是所涉对象的类型，二是支持与反对保存时所使用的论证方式。一个重要差异是这场新圣像破坏运动相当一部分具有“反动”维度：它针对的是那些（多多少少）脱胎于革命、自视为“革命的”、并曾部分摧毁先前文化遗产的政权的象征。

We have even seen that, in many cases, the Communist monuments had been erected on the site occupied by their predecessors – a very old practice that has to do with recycling, neutralization and the embezzlement of symbolic resources. It follows almost naturally that many of the Communist monuments disposed of were replaced not by brand-new monuments but by the same ones they had repressed, where these had been stored, and where not, by reconstructions or substitutes. Needless to say, the meanings attached to such revenants had been transformed and supplemented accordingly, so that one may only superficially speak of a return to the status quo ante – even if, as one commentator remarked, the statues that had survived as works of art proved to be re-instrumentalized as political signs.47

我们甚至已经看到，在许多情况下，共产主义纪念碑正是竖立在其前身曾占据的位置上——这是一种非常古老的做法，涉及象征资源的回收、中和与侵吞。几乎顺理成章的是，许多被处置的共产主义纪念碑，其位置上取而代之的并非全新纪念碑，而是它们曾压制过的那些旧物——只要这些旧物还被库存着；若没有，则以复建或替代品代之。不消说，附着于这些“还魂者”身上的意义已相应地被改造和补充，因此所谓恢复原状只能是表面之谈——即便正如一位评论者所言，那些作为艺术品幸存下来的雕像，最终又被重新工具化为政治符号。47

26 Demolition of a portion of the Berlin Wall after 9 November 1989.

图26 1989年11月9日后，一段柏林墙被拆毁。



To that extent, the iconoclasm of the October Revolution was much nearer to that of the French Revolution, whatever one may think of the differences in socio-political relationships.48 Moreover, reactionary elements did play a role in the further political development, particularly in Russia where the Orthodox Church regained a greater influence.49 A cyclical interpretation of Russian iconoclasm and history could thus be proposed at the Venice Biennale in 1995 by means of a film, shown continuously, using archive material. The inauguration by the clergy of the monument to Alexander III in front of the church of Christ-the-Saviour in Moscow (built between 1843–1883 to commemorate the victims of the war against Napoleon) was followed by the destruction of the statue (1923) and of the church (1931; see illus. 23). Then came the projects for the gigantic Palace of the Soviets – crowned by a personification of the proletariat or an effigy of Lenin – that was to replace the church, but which the ground could not support; the Moskva swimming-pool that was built instead; then its closure and the inauguration by priests and politicians of the substructure for the replica of the church planned to be completed by 1997.50 But such interested 'resurrections' are not limited to the former Communist countries, as the reconstruction of the 14-metre high equestrian statue of the German emperor Wilhelm I in Koblenz, where it had been originally erected in 1897 and destroyed by the Allies in 1945, showed in 1993. Denounced by opponents as an 'untimely glorification of Prussian militarism', it was inaugurated on 2 September, the date of Germany's victory over France in 1870 that was celebrated annually in Germany until the Second World War.51

就此而言，十月革命的圣像破坏与法国革命的圣像破坏要接近得多——无论人们如何看待两者在社会政治关系上的差异。48

此外，反动因素在后来的政治发展中确实发挥了作用，尤其是在俄国，东正教重新获得了更大影响。49 于是，1995年威尼斯双年展上便借助一部用档案素材剪辑、持续放映的影片，提出了一种对俄国圣像破坏与历史的循环式阐释。教士们在莫斯科救世主大教堂（建于1843—1883年，为纪念对拿破仑战争的牺牲者而建）前为亚历山大三世纪念碑主持落成典礼之后，接着便是雕像（1923年）和教堂（1931年；见图23）被毁。随后又出现了建造巨型苏维埃宫的方案——以无产阶级化身或列宁像为顶饰——用以取代教堂，但地基承受不住；于是改建成了莫斯科游泳池；再后来游泳池关闭，神父和政客们又为计划于1997年完工的教堂复制品举行了奠基仪式。50　但这种别有所图的"复活"并不限于前共产主义国家：1993年科布伦茨重建14米高的德皇威廉一世骑马雕像便是一例——该像原址于1897年竖立，1945年被盟军摧毁。反对者谴责这是"不合时宜地颂扬普鲁士军国主义"，而它仍于9月2日落成——这一天正是1870年德国战胜法国的日子，此前德国每年都要庆祝，直到二战为止。51

自下而上，自上而下

From below, from above

Other analogies with earlier periods have been pointed out in regard to the methods employed in abusing monuments. The fact that figures were often mishandled as if they were living persons harks back to abuses that range from the Late Antique's executio in effigie to the martyring of statues of saints during the Reformation.52 One of the favoured ill-treatments was hanging, which was also a practical, though informal, way of transporting a heavy statue. As for the frequent recourse to inscriptions and adjuncts to extant inscriptions fostered by the easy use of the spraycan, Petra Roettig has shown that they could be considered as an extension of the little-known history of comments on monuments. In two remarkable examples, the graffiti allowed statues to speak, and in one case to proclaim its innocence (illus. 27, 28). The latter reminds one of a woodcut of 1520 by Erhard Schön in which the holy images reproach the iconoclasts for having themselves made idols of them, for punishing them instead of the real guilty and for being ready to fall prey to other idols, such as money and prostitutes.53 What about the distinction between iconoclasms 'from below' and 'from above'? As we might expect, these categories are not always found in a pure form. The fall of the Communist monuments shows how complex (if retraceable) the implication of social groups and forces can be. Moreover, the fact that specific forms of legitimacy are, according to political positions and circumstances, attached to the opposite paradigms of the 'spontaneous destruction by the people' and of legal and regular elimination, calls for a cautious approach to the events.

在虐待纪念碑所采用的方式方面，人们也指出了与早期的其他类比。塑像常常被当作活人来处置，这让人回溯到从古罗马晚期的"肖像处决"（executio in effigie）到宗教改革时期圣徒雕像被殉难式对待的种种虐待行为。52 最常用的虐待方式之一是绞刑——这同时也是一种实用（尽管不正规）的搬运沉重雕像的办法。至于因喷漆罐随手可得而频繁出现的铭文及对现有铭文的添补，佩特拉·勒蒂格已指出，它们可被视为鲜为人知的"纪念碑评论史"的延伸。在两个引人注目的例子中，涂鸦让雕像开了口，其中一例还让雕像宣称自己无辜（图27、28）。后者令人想起埃尔哈德·舍恩1520年的一幅木刻：圣像们谴责圣像破坏者把它们本身做成偶像，惩罚它们而非真正有罪者，并且自己又准备沦为金钱和妓女等其他偶像的猎物。53 那么，"自下"与"自上而下"的圣像破坏之间的区分又如何呢？正如我们所料，这两种范畴并不总是以纯粹形式出现。共产主义纪念碑的倒塌表明，社会群体和力量卷入其中的方式即便可以追溯，也何其复杂。此外，"人民自发的破坏"与合法有序的清除这两种对立范式，会因政治立场和情境不同而被赋予不同的合法性形式——这要求我们对事件采取审慎的态度。

Individual attacks may be simpler to deal with. In March 1991, for instance, the bust of Stalin on his tomb in Moscow's Red Square was struck several times with an iron bar by a man who was later arrested; but the Soviet news agency Interfax described the iconoclast as both homeless and unemployed, thus discouraging a political interpretation of his action.54 A good candidate for a collective destruction in which the authorities took no part is the pulling down of the statue of Enver Hoxha on 20 February 1991 in Tirana (illus. 29), which was carried out by the crowd during a giant demonstration against the Albanian government and which was condemned on television by Chief of State Alia as 'vandalism'.55 The situation seems more complicated in the case of the removal on 5 March 1990 of the statue of Lenin in Bucharest (illus. 30): an orthodox priest, Sorin Grecu, then on a hunger strike, had demanded its removal, and this was promptly carried out by the new authorities.56 Finally, one could not wish for a better example of a 'confused social event' than the removal of the statue of Felix Dzerzhinsky on 22 August 1991 in Moscow (illus. 22). Following the failure of the Russian putsch, a crowd of demonstrators gathered in the evening in Dzerzhinsky Square, chanting slogans against the KGB around the monument to the founder of the Bolshevik secret police and in front of its headquarters, the Lubyanka. Once the decree of Moscow's mayor, Gavril Popov, authorizing the removal of the statue was made known, a representative for Boris Yeltsin intervened against a demonstrator's attempt to pull it down and workers appeared with a crane that dragged it from its pedestal, an action approved by many, though some judged it 'vandalism' against 'a part of our history', wanting the statue to be kept there, even if only because – as one woman put it – she would 'be able later to tell her son that this guy was a bastard'.57 For Albert Boime, 'the local leaders channeled anger into a constructive destructive act and thereby controlled the crowd's outrage', for participants had threatened to storm the Lubyanka.58 According to one art critic who was present, the demonstrators would have been content with playful, provisional abuses of the statue, whereas the officially sanctioned removal had signified the end of the 'performance' and the start of the 'mechanism of history'.59

个人袭击或许较容易处理。例如1991年3月，莫斯科红场上斯大林墓上的胸像被一名男子用铁棍击打数次，此人后被逮捕；但苏联新闻社国际文传电讯社把这位圣像破坏者描述为无家可归且失业之人，以此消解对其行为的政治解读。54 一个当局未参与的集体破坏的好例子，是1991年2月20日在地拉那拉倒恩维尔·霍查雕像（图29）：那是在一场反对阿尔巴尼亚政府的大规模示威中由群众执行的，国家元首阿利雅在电视上谴责其为"破坏行为"。55　而1990年3月5日布加勒斯特移走列宁像（图30）的情形似乎更为复杂：一位正在绝食的东正教牧师索林·格雷库要求移走它，新当局随即照办。56　最后，要找一个"混乱社会事件"的更佳范例，莫过于1991年8月22日在莫斯科移走费利克斯·捷尔任斯基雕像（图22）。俄国政变失败后，晚间一群示威者聚集在捷尔任斯基广场，围绕这座布尔什维克秘密警察创始人的雕像、在其总部卢比扬卡大楼前，高呼反对克格勃的口号。当莫斯科市长加夫里尔·波波夫授权移走雕像的命令公布后，鲍里斯·叶利钦的一位代表出面制止了一名示威者试图拉倒雕像的行动，随后工人开着吊车出现，把它从基座上吊走——这一行动得到许多人赞同，但也有人认为这是对"我们历史一部分"的"破坏行为"，希望雕像留在原地，哪怕只是因为——正如一位妇女所说——她以后好"告诉儿子那家伙是个杂种"。57 在阿尔伯特·博伊姆看来，"地方领导人把愤怒疏导为一种建设性的破坏行为，从而控制了群众的怒火"，因为参与者曾威胁要冲击卢比扬卡。58 据一位在场的艺术评论家说，示威者本满足于对雕像进行游戏性的、临时性的戏弄；而官方批准的移走则意味着"表演"的结束和"历史机制"的启动。59

27 Wir sind unschuldig (‘we are innocent’) on the central pedestal of Ludwig Engelhardt’s 1977–86 statue of Marx and Engels in front of the Palast der Republik, Marx-Engels-Forum, Berlin, on 12 May 1991.

图27　1991年5月12日，柏林马克思-恩格斯广场，共和宫前，路德维希·恩格尔哈特1977—1986年创作的马克思-恩格斯雕像中央基座上写着“我们是无辜的”（Wir sind unschuldig）。



28 Nikolai Tomsky’s Lenin monument of 1968–69 (demolished in 1991), in the Leninplatz, Friedrichshain, Berlin, with an inscription ‘No violence’ protesting against its planned demolition.

图28　柏林弗里德里希斯海林区列宁广场，尼古拉·托姆斯基1968—1969年创作的列宁纪念碑（1991年被拆毁），基座上有“不要暴力”字样，抗议拟议中的拆除。



29 The statue of Enver Hoxha being pulled down on 20 February 1991 in Tirana, Albania.
图29 1991年2月20日，阿尔巴尼亚地拉那，恩维尔·霍查雕像被拉倒。



30 The removal of the statue of Lenin in Bucharest on 5 March 1990.
图30 1990年3月5日，布加勒斯特，列宁雕像被移走。



A rather clearcut instance of ‘iconoclasm from above’ will be discussed later in this chapter with the disposal of the main monument to Lenin in East Berlin, commented on by a West German journalist as a painful attempt at ‘making up by a cold and calculated administrative action for what the people’s wrath had spared’.60 It must be added that the meaning of an iconoclastic action ‘from below’ or ‘from above’ depends not only on the exact nature of the forces thus referred to, but on their mutual relationships as well. The removal of the statue of Dzerzhinsky (who was a Pole) in Warsaw on 17 November 1989, for example, although decided on and carried out by the authorities in the context of constructing a subway, seems to have had a real popular character. The statue was meant to be stored, but it proved to have only a coat of copper covering a heart of cement – probably because of its hasty erection – and did not survive its removal.61

一个相当典型的“自上而下圣像破坏”的例子，将在本章后文讨论，即东柏林主要列宁纪念碑的处置；一位西德记者评论说，那是一种痛苦的尝试，“想用冷静而精心算计的行政行动，来弥补人民怒火所未曾伤及之处”。60　还必须补充的是，一场圣像破坏行动究竟算“自下”还是“自上而下”，不仅取决于所涉力量的确切性质，也取决于它们之间的相互关系。例如1989年11月17日华沙移走（波兰人）捷尔任斯基雕像一事，虽然是当局在修建地铁的背景下决定并执行的，但似乎带有真正的民众色彩。雕像本拟库存，结果发现它只是铜皮裹着水泥心——或许是仓促竖立所致——未能在移走后幸存。61

徽章与名称、绘画与建筑

Arms and names, paintings and buildings

Monuments were privileged targets because of their ideological function and public accessibility, as well as because statues may be deformed and thus transformed into monuments of their own degradation.62 But it is also as part of the larger class constituted by all signs, tokens and traces of the Communist era that they were abused. Closest to them were the ‘symbols’ and ‘emblems’ of party and state. In Bulgaria in August 1990, the National Assembly ordered the ‘elimination of symbols of foreign origin from buildings, flags and anthems’; the large emblem attached to the headquarters of the Communist Party in Sofia was the first to be removed.63 In Hungary, the use of Communist and Nazi symbols was prohibited by Parliament on 14 April 1993, in the wake of neo-Nazi agitation but with the official claim that ‘they embody organizations responsible for the death of millions of persons’.64 Symbols of the state, such as arms, flags and anthems, called for replacement and raised the questions of re-establishment and conflicting memories. In July 1990 the Hungarian Parliament eventually decided to return to the pre-Communist arms with the crown of King Stephen, despite objections to this monarchic association and to their use under the authoritarian regime of Admiral Horthy.65 The same problems were raised by verbal – although by no means visually insignificant – elements such as city and street names. The attempt by Communist regimes to erase not only politically unpleasant but also local, regional or national memories in favour of a unified and stereotyped model had created as many Lenin streets as Lenin monuments, so that renaming boomed after 1989.66 Sixty-six street names were changed in Warsaw between June 1990 and March 1992, and in Budapest, 428 new names were proposed between 1989 and November 1993.67 In some cases, changes were decided by the authorities alone, although private initiatives could be taken into account. In others, commissions were set up and consultations held. The citizens of Budapest were allowed to send complaints about extant names to a ‘Commission for the protection (later embellishment) of the image of the city’, which transmitted its judgements to the Town assembly. An interesting, though naive, argument was put forward by an inhabitant of Leninallee, who wrote that with such an address he would eternally be recognized as an East Berliner even beyond the city.68 A commission mainly composed of historians eventually refused to rename streets dedicated to Rosa Luxemburg and Karl Liebknecht, but the Wilhelm Pieck Street became Turmstraße (Tower Street), and the Marx-Engels-Platz returned in part to Schloßplatz (Castle Square).69 The principle adopted in the Hungarian capital was to choose the street names in use at the time of the unification of Buda and Pest, evoking the golden age of the 1930s, but in general the selection of the relevant fragments from the past proved more often than not to be ideologically loaded and conflictual. The rejection of anything that sounded ‘Communist’ also led to many hypercorrections and historical absurdities, such as the elimination of all Russian names; the most economic solution was certainly found in Poznań, where the hero of the Paris Commune, General Jarosław Dąbrowski, was replaced by the founder of the Polish Legion, General Henryk Dąbrowski, so that Dąbrowski Street became Dąbrowski Street.70 Street, square and even town names often had their monumental counterparts, causing name and image to disappear together – but not always: the inhabitants of Karl-Marx-Stadt voted almost unanimously to rename it Chemnitz in 1990, but they did not join the campaign launched by a tabloid for the removal of the seven-metres-high head of Marx dominating the main square.71

纪念碑之所以成为首选目标，是因为其意识形态功能与公共可达性，也因为雕像可能被损毁，从而变成自身堕落的纪念碑。62 但它们也是作为共产主义时代一切符号、标记与痕迹所构成的更大范畴之一而遭虐待的。与它们最接近的是党和国家的“符号”与“徽章”。1990年8月在保加利亚，国民议会下令“从建筑、旗帜和国歌中清除外来起源的符号”；索菲亚共产党总部大楼上的大型徽章第一个被拆除。63 在匈牙利，议会于1993年4月14日禁止使用共产主义和纳粹符号——这是在新纳粹煽动之后，但官方理由是“它们体现着对数百万人之死负有责任的组织”。64 国家符号如国徽、国旗、国歌需要更换，也引发了重建何种象征以及记忆冲突的问题。1990年7月，匈牙利议会最终决定恢复带圣斯蒂芬王冠的前共产主义时代国徽

，尽管有人反对这种君主制联想，也反对它们曾在霍尔蒂海军上将威权政权下被使用。65 语词性的——尽管在视觉上绝非无关紧要的——元素如城市和街道名称也引发了同样的问题。共产主义政权试图不仅抹去政治上令人不快的、还抹去地方、地区或民族的记忆，以青睐一种统一而刻板的模式，这造就了和列宁纪念碑一样多的列宁大街，因此1989年后改名之风大盛。66 1990年6月至1992年3月间，华沙更改了66个街名；布达佩斯在1989年至1993年11月间提出了428个新名称。67 有些情况下，更改由当局单独决定，尽管也会考虑民间倡议；另一些情况下则设立委员会并进行咨询。布达佩斯市民可就现有名称向“城市形象保护（后改为美化）委员会”投诉，该委员会再将意见提交市议会。列宁大街一位居民提出了一个有趣却天真的论点：他写道，有了这样的地址，即使在城外，他也会永远被认作东柏林人。68 一个主要由历史学家组成的委员会最终拒绝更改以罗莎·卢森堡和卡尔·李卜克内西命名的街道，但威廉·皮克大街改成了塔街（Turmstraße），马克思-恩格斯广场部分恢复为宫城广场（Schloßplatz）。69 匈牙利首都采取的原则是选择布达与佩斯统一时使用的街名，以唤起二十世纪三十年代的黄金时代；但总体而言，从过去中选取哪些片段，往往带有意识形态意味并充满争议。排斥一切听起来“共产主义”的东西也导致了许多过度矫正和历史荒唐事，例如清除所有俄语名称；最经济的解决办法无疑出现在波兹南：巴黎公社英雄雅罗斯瓦夫·东布罗夫斯基将军被波兰军团创始人亨里克·东布罗夫斯基将军所替换，于是“东布罗夫斯基街”还是“东布罗夫斯基街”。70 街道、广场甚至城镇名称往往有其纪念碑对应物，导致名称与形象一同消失——但并非总是如此：1990年，卡尔·马克思城的居民几乎全票投票将其改名为开姆尼茨，但他们并没有加入一家小报发起的运动，去移走俯瞰主广场的那尊七米高的马克思头像。71

This broader context could be very broad indeed, since it tended to include everything reminiscent not only of the Communist regimes but of the whole period – the ‘era’ – and way of life that they had shaped. Yet, an analogy with the extent of the targets of iconoclasm under the French Revolution does not seem quite appropriate. One reason for this may be that as the Communist era was incomparably shorter than that of the monarchy, nobility and Church, its material legacy was accordingly smaller, although the amount of reconstruction following the Second World War weakens the argument. Another reason is that the Communist authorities and elites, despite their love of decorum and propaganda, had not commissioned as many buildings (apart from monuments) whose purposes died along with the power of their users. A third reason, on which more will be said later, is that the artistic status of their realizations was paradoxically more fragile than those of the Ancien Régime.

这一更广阔的语境确实可能非常广阔，因为它倾向于把一切不仅让人想起共产主义政权、而且让人想起整个时期——那个“时代”——以及它们所塑造的生活方式的事物都包括在内。然而，将其与法国革命时期圣像破坏目标的范围相类比，似乎并不十分恰当。原因之一或许是：共产主义时代比君主制、贵族和教会的时代短得多，因此其物质遗产相应也较小——尽管二战后重建的规模削弱了这一论点。另一个原因是：共产主义当局和精英尽管热爱排场与宣传，却并未（除纪念碑外）委托建造多少随其使用者权力一同消亡的建筑。第三个原因——后文还将论及——是：他们那些作品的艺术地位悖论性地比旧制度的作品更为脆弱。

The question of what to do (destroy, sell, store, study, exhibit) with the moveable art objects inherited from the Communist states and organizations has been much discussed, particularly in Germany. But no one seems to have seriously proposed eliminating them, and no major attacks on paintings or sculptures in galleries have been reported.72 As for the numerous historical museums and exhibitions that used to present the official view of the past and might now document it, they were mostly closed and dismantled, or adapted to new legitimizing purposes.73 But architecture is, of course, after public sculpture, the most exposed genre. The means and time necessary for the demolition or major transformation of a building presuppose – even more than for large monuments – at least the collaboration of authorities and administrations, and better allow for debate and the conserving influence of curators of ancient monuments.

如何处置从共产主义国家和组织继承来的可移动艺术品（销毁、出售、库存、研究、展览），这一问题已被广泛讨论，尤其是在德国。但似乎没有人认真提议将其清除，也未见美术馆中的绘画或雕塑遭到重大袭击的报道。72 至于那些曾经呈现官方历史观、如今或许可记录历史的众多历史博物馆和展览，大多被关闭、解散，或被改造以服务于新的合法化目的。73 而建筑当然是继公共雕塑之后最暴露的体裁。拆毁或大幅改造一座建筑所需的手段和时间——甚至超过大型纪念碑——至少以当局和行政部门的合作为前提，也更有利于辩论和文物保护者的守护性影响。

A controversial case in point is the Palast der Republik in Berlin (illus. 31), constructed in 1973–6 by Heinz Graffunder on the site of the celebrated royal castle built by Andreas Schlüter for the king of Prussia, which had been damaged at the end of the War and completely destroyed – instead of restored – by the Communists in 1950. Stylistically one of the most Western-oriented buildings of East Berlin, the Palace was meant to symbolize an open society and housed, in addition to the Parliament, mainly cultural institutions and events. The emblem of the state was removed from its front after the opening of the Wall. In 1990, shortly before the reunification of Germany, the building was found to be full of asbestos and was closed. The question of whether to make it habitable or to demolish it was entangled with plans and debates on the restructuring of the historical centre of the reunified city, the installation of the official and administrative buildings of the new capital of Germany, and a possible reconstruction or architectural evocation of the Castle. The provisions of the last competition organized by the Federal government and the City senate included the elimination of the Palace, and the architect chosen planned to reconstitute the dimensions if not the actual form of the Castle.74 There is no room here to mention all the arguments put forward. The replacement of Palace with Castle was advocated as a restoration of historical and urban continuity and quality at the expense of a mediocre, atypical and, in its current state, dangerous building, or on the contrary denounced as a falsification of the past justifying the elimination of a symbol and document of East German identity and history.75 Meanwhile, another official building of the DDR, the Ministerium für Auswärtige Angelegenheiten (Ministry of Foreign Affairs) built in 1964–7 by Josef Kaiser was destroyed to allow the reconstruction of Karl Friedrich Schinkel's Bauakademie, but the Palace is still there, and asbestos has been discovered in its West Berlin counterpart, the International Congress Centrum (ICC) constructed in 1975–9 by Ralf Schüler and Ursulina Schüler-Witte.76

一个有争议的典型案例是柏林的共和国宫（图31），由海因茨·格拉芬德于1973至1976年建造，选址在安德烈亚斯·施吕特为普鲁士国王建造的著名王宫旧址上——该王宫在战争末期受损，1950年被共产党人彻底拆毁而非修复。从风格上看，它是东柏林最具西方取向的建筑之一，本意是象征一个开放社会，除议会外还主要容纳文化机构和活动。围墙开放后，其正面的国家徽章被拆除。1990年，即在德国统一前不久，大楼被发现布满石棉而关闭。是让它重新可用还是拆毁它，这一问题与统一后城市历史中心重建、德国新首都官署与行政建筑安置、以及是否可能复建或在建筑上唤起王宫的种种计划和争论纠缠在一起。联邦政府与市参议院组织的最后一轮竞赛条款中包含拆除共和国宫，中选建筑师计划即便不恢复王宫的实际形式，也要恢复其尺度。74 此处无法一一列举所提出的论证。以王宫取代共和国宫，被支持者誉为以牺牲一座平庸、非典型且现状危险的建筑为代价，恢复历史与城市的连续性和品质；反对者则相反，谴责这是对过去的伪造，是以之为借口清除东德身份与历史的象征和文献。75 与此同时，东德另一座官方建筑——约瑟夫·凯泽1964至1967年建造的外交部大楼——被拆毁，以便复建卡尔·弗里德里希·申克尔的建筑学院；但共和国宫仍在那里，而其西柏林对应物——拉尔夫·许勒和乌尔苏丽娜·许勒-维特1975至1979年建造的国际会议中心（ICC）——也被发现含有石棉。76

31 Aerial photograph of central Berlin in May 1995, with (on the left) the former DDR Palast der Republik, 1973–6, and, on the other side of the Marx-Engels-Platz, the former Ministry of Foreign Affairs, 1964–7.

图31 1995年5月柏林市中心航拍图。（左侧）为前东德共和国宫（1973—1976），马克思-恩格斯广场另一侧为前外交部大楼（1964—1967）。



冲突的记忆

Conflicting memories

The authors of A l'Est, la mémoire retrouvée, a major work on the symbolic situation in Central and Eastern Europe after 1989, consider that after the time of erasure and manipulation of memory under Stalinism and existing Socialism has come the time of 'disputed memory'.77 Another author makes use of E. J. Hobsbawm's well-known phrase and speaks of 'the invention of tradition'.78 Yet, if every tradition is invented, it does not follow that all inventions are equally fictional. Alain Brossat and his colleagues distinguish between the very different norms to which the desire of the past can obey – the call to ancestors, the mystique of earth and blood, or the will to re-establish a constitutional state – and note that some feed a justified nostalgia for a stage of their society and institutions compared to which the Stalinist period can only be perceived as a startling regression.79 They also point to the want of legitimacy affecting the present time and modernity in Eastern Europe – the notorious difficulties Germany has with its national identity and symbols, partly due to the Nazi period, may be compared to the effects of this deficiency.80 Some examples of conflicting memories and monumental palimpsests (such as the ones built on the church of Christ-the-Saviour in Moscow or the Regnum Marianum in Budapest) have been given, and others will follow.81 But whatever past one was prone to referring to, there remained the question formulated immediately after the collapse of the Wall by the singer Wolf Biermann: 'What is to be done with the legacy of tyranny?'82 Inevitably, this meant very different things according to age, social and political position, as well as personal history. Again, Germany is a special case, since the reunification made this legacy the literal property of both the former victims, collaborators and members of the Communist regime, and of their cousins and (with important nuances) long-time enemies.

《在东方，重获的记忆》——一部关于1989年后中东欧象征状况的重要著作——的作者们认为，在斯大林主义和现实社会主义对记忆进行抹除与操纵的时期之后，"有争议的记忆"时期已经到来。77 另一位作者借用E.J.霍布斯鲍姆的名言，谈论"传统的发明"。78 然而，即便一切传统都是被发明的，也不能就此推出所有发明都同样虚构。阿兰·布罗萨及其同事区分了"对过去的渴望"可能服从的各种截然不同的规范——对祖先的召唤、土地与血液的神秘性、或重建宪政国家的意志——并指出，其中一些滋养着对其社会与制度某一阶段的合理怀旧，相比之下，斯大林时期只能被视为一场令人震惊的倒退。79 他们还指出了影响东欧当下与现代性的合法性匮乏——德国因其国家身份和符号而遭遇的尽人皆知的困难（部分源于纳粹时期），可与这种匮乏的后果相比较。80 前文已给出一些记忆冲突与纪念碑重写本的例子（如莫斯科救世主大教堂或布达佩斯圣母王国教堂之上所建造者），下文还将给出其他例子。81 但无论人们倾向于援引何种过去，围墙倒塌后不久歌手沃尔夫·比尔曼提出的问题仍然存在："该如何处置暴政的遗产？"82 不可避免的是，根据年龄、社会与政治立场以及个人经历的不同，这个问题意味着截然不同的东西。同样，德国是一个特例，因为统一使这份遗产在字面上同时成为前受害者、合作者、共产主义政权成员，以及他们的堂亲表亲和（带有重要细微差别的）长期敌人的财产。

Explanations and justifications for the elimination of symbols of the Communist era have come from every side. It was said to spring from the spontaneous and legitimate anger of the people at its oppressors, was supposed to free the politically liberated citizens from the debilitating influence – ideological or aesthetic – of the past, or to enable them to recover in one way or another what this past had destroyed. Albert Boime, who concentrates on the 'transition phase', sees in iconoclasm the possibility of a 'concrete expression of participation in historical change', providing a 'momentary feeling of self-realization in the collective act' and contributing to the 'provisional creation of a real public space'. But he also points to some psychological complications when, as already mentioned, he speaks of 'self-detestation projected outwardly on the hollow icon' or of 'self-flagellation for having been so gullible'.83 As time passed and the opening to the West proved to be disappointing or ambivalent, even hated symbols of a hated past could become elements of an identity perceived as menaced or vanishing. Advocates of a preservation of this legacy often made use of psychological or psychoanalytical metaphors to define the dangers of destruction: the disappearance of all traces of the Communist era would amount to a repression of individual and collective memory, preventing the necessary mourning (and historical research) from taking place and allowing for a future return of the repressed.84 A commentator applied this apparent paradox to Berlin's statue of Lenin (illus. 28, 35–9) by affirming that when preserved, it would be a good defence against 'his own return'.85 Some of these defenders were historians, art historians or professional heritage curators – and some, particularly in Germany, belonged to the West, but many others were simply neighbours, inhabitants and users of this legacy.86 Whereas several persons in favour of elimination saw a justification in the destructions performed from 1918 on by the Communists, their opponents considered this precedent as another reason to proceed otherwise and guard against the repetition of history.87 Moreover, any appreciation of removal was tinged by fear of what might replace the removed. An examination of the relatively few attempts at commemorating the Communist era, or rather its victims, would take us too far out of our way, but one cannot fail to note that for many witnesses, what was perceived as taking the place of Communist monuments and emblems were advertisements, i.e. unofficial but unmistakable symbols of the Western way of life and economic supremacy.88

对清除共产主义时代符号的解释与辩护来自四面八方。有人说这出自人民对压迫者自发而正当的愤怒；有人说这是要把政治上获得解放的公民从过去在意识形态或审美上令人衰弱的影响中解放出来；或让他们以某种方式夺回被这一过去摧毁的东西。专注于"过渡阶段"的阿尔伯特·博伊姆在圣像破坏中看到了"参与历史变革的具体表达"的可能性，它提供了"集体行动中短暂的自我实现感"，并有助于"临时创造一个真正的公共空间"。但他也指出了一些心理上的复杂性——如前所述，他谈到"向外投射到空洞偶像上的自我憎恨"，或"因曾如此轻信而进行的自我鞭笞"。83 随着时间推移，向西方开放被证明令人失望或五味杂陈，就连被憎恨的过去中那些被憎恨的符号，也可能成为一种被感受到威胁或正在消失的身份的要素。主张保存这份遗产的人常借用心理学或心理分析的隐喻来界定破坏的危险：共产主义时代一切痕迹的消失，将等同于对个人与集体记忆的压抑，使必要的哀悼（和历史研究）无法发生，并为被压抑者未来的回归埋下伏笔。84 一位评论者把这一表面悖论应用于柏林的列宁像（图28、35—39），断言只要把它保存下来，它就能成为抵御"他自己回来"的良好防御。85 这些捍卫者中，有些是历史学家、艺术史家或专业遗产管理者——其中一些（尤其是在德国）属于西方，但更多的只是这份遗产的邻居、居民和使用者。86 一些主张清除的人从共产党人自1918年起所进行的破坏中看到正当性，而他们的反对者则把这一先例视为应当另辟蹊径、避免历史重演的又一理由。87 此外，对移走的任何评价都染上了对"取而代之者"的恐惧。考察相对少量的纪念共产主义时代——或毋宁说其受害者——的尝试会使我们离题太远，但不能不注意到：在许多目击者看来，取代共产主义纪念碑和徽章位置的，是广告——即非官方却明白无误的西方生活方式与经济霸权的符号。88

对待纪念碑的方式

Ways of treating monuments

It has already become apparent that the spectacular removals publicized by the mass media were certainly not the only way monuments of the Communist era have been treated since 1989. As a matter of fact, opponents to an indiscriminate clearing away usually stressed the fact that possibilities other than removing or preserving them unmodified in situ could be envisaged, and pleaded for a differentiated attitude towards objects and contexts. The 'Commission for dealing with the post-War political monuments in former East Berlin' established by the Berlin Senate in 1992 thus recommended, according to the various cases, to maintain the work in situ; to study it further and leave the decision to the neighbourhood, or to consult foreign experts (in the case of memorials to foreign soldiers); to complement, modify, replace the textual part of the monument or to add to it a comment; if necessary to displace it; or to dismantle it and to redesign the site.89 Before I examine the different 'treatments' documented according to their form, I must make a few preliminary remarks.

已经很清楚的是，大众媒体大肆报道的戏剧性移走，绝非1989年以来对待共产主义时代纪念碑的唯一方式。事实上，反对不加区分地清除的人通常强调：除了移走或原封不动地原地保存之外，还可以设想其他可能性，并主张对对象和语境采取区别对待的态度。柏林参议院1992年设立的"处理前东柏林战后政治纪念碑委员会"因此根据不同情况建议：原地保留作品；进一步研究并把决定权交给邻里，或咨询外国专家（如纪念外国士兵的碑）；补充、修改、替换纪念碑的文字部分或附加一段说明；必要时迁移；或拆除并重新设计场地。89 在我按形式考察所记载的不同"处置方式"之前，必须先作几点初步说明。

In the first place, formally similar interventions were liable to reflect differing authors, motives and intentions. A written comment could thus be added anonymously to deface a monument, but also, more or less officially, to 'neutralize' it or to clarify and transmit its historical significance – surely, a more precise definition of form might show this, since a spontaneous and defacing inscription is more likely to be handwritten than a considered, explanatory one. Other differentiating criteria that could be systematically applied but will only be mentioned in passing are the more or less provisional or enduring character of an intervention, the extent to which it modified the material substance of the work, its visibility or invisibility, and the technical and financial means it required. Destructions are expensive, and the impact of cost and equipment on the various 'solutions' adopted, according to authors and context, should not be underestimated.

首先，形式上相似的干预可能反映着不同的作者、动机和意图。一段文字评论可能被匿名加上去以污损纪念碑，也可能被多少官方地加上去以"中和"它、或阐明并传达其历史意义——当然，对形式更精确的界定或许能显示这一点，因为自发而污损性的铭文更可能是手写的，而经过深思熟虑的说明性铭文则不然。其他可系统应用但此处仅顺带提及的区分标准包括：干预的临时或持久程度、对作品物质实体的改变程度、可见或不可见、以及所需的技术与资金手段。破坏是昂贵的；成本和装备对不同"解决方案"的影响——视作者和语境而定——不应被低估。

The relationship of visibility and invisibility to different attitudes towards the past is obvious. But again, an intervention could be made or left visible in order to lengthen in time the appearance and effect of degradation, or, on the contrary, to prevent falsifications and promote an informed access to history. As for durability, curators of monuments were not alone in objecting to definitive measures. Christine Hoh-Slodczyk, former curator of ancient monuments in East Berlin and advocate of preservation, warned that these would prevent the 'historically necessary confrontation with the object' and would not allow the passing of time to make 'out of a symbol of power a symbol of impotence, out of a menacing gesture an expression of abandon, out of an affirmation of victory an image of defeat'.90 But transience, a characteristic of spontaneous and sometimes playful or performance-like actions, often served as a prelude to more lasting, even definitive interventions. Such concatenations (for example, the common succession of inscription–removal–storage) and combinations were not always planned and logical, but could result from the unforeseeable interaction between interventions and 'the public'.

可见与不可见和不同对待过去的态度之间的关系是显而易见的。但同样，一项干预可以被做成或保留为可见，以在时间上延长堕落的外观和效果；或者相反，以防止伪造并促进对历史的知情进入。至于持久性，反对决定性措施的并不只是文物保护者。前东柏林古代文物保护者、主张保存的克里斯蒂娜·霍-斯洛奇克警告说，这些措施会阻碍"在历史上与对象的必要对峙"，也不会让时间流逝把"权力的象征变成无能的象征，把威胁的姿态变成被遗弃的表达，把胜利的肯定变成失败的形象"。90 但短暂性——自发的、有时是游戏性或表演性行动的特征——往往是更持久、甚至决定性干预的前奏。这种连锁（例如常见的"铭文—移走—库存"序列）和组合并不总是经过计划和合逻辑的，而可能是干预与"公众"之间不可预见的互动的结果。

With few exceptions, the preservation in situ of an unmodified monument does not make news, and is thus less often documented. Exceptions result from consultations and controversies. The case of Chemnitz has already been mentioned. In Berlin, the art journal Pan organized an inquiry about the monument to Marx and Engels (illus. 27) situated on the rear side of the Palace of the Republic: 67 per cent of those consulted held the view that it was a token of their own history and deserved to be preserved; 23 per cent advocated immediate removal. The commission later proposed conserving the monument (of which the statue is but the central part) while removing the base so as to integrate it in the surrounding green space and diminish 'its dominance and undesired ideological function' or, if the restructuring of the square demanded it, to reconstruct the monument at some other place.91 Naturally, preservation may also be considered an index to an unchanged situation, as in the south Russian town of Voronezh, where a 'reformer' still in power explained that the ideological traces of the totalitarian regime would 'die on their own with time', or in Moscow itself, where the number of monuments to Lenin still in place gained a new significance in the light of the political reinforcement of Communists and nationalists.92 In some cases, the change of site was enough to make monuments acceptable: they were particularly exposed in the central spaces they were meant to dominate and could survive in 'less pretentious or demanding places'.93

除少数例外，原地保存一座未加改动的纪念碑不会成为新闻，因此较少被记载。例外来自咨询和争议。开姆尼茨一案前文已述。在柏林，艺术期刊《Pan》就位于共和国宫后侧的马克思-恩格斯纪念碑（图27）组织了一次民意调查：67%的被咨询者认为它是自身历史的标记，值得保存；23%主张立即移走。委员会后来建议保存这座纪念碑（雕像只是其中心部分），同时拆除基座，使之融入周边绿地并削弱"其支配地位和不受欢迎的意识形态功能"；或者如果广场改造需要，则在别处复建纪念碑。91 自然，保存也可被视为局势未变的标志，例如俄国南部城市沃罗涅日，一位仍在任的"改革派"解释说，极权政权的意识形态痕迹会"随时间自行消亡"；或在莫斯科本身，仍在原地的列宁纪念碑数量，在共产主义者和民族主义者政治力量增强的背景下获得了新的意义。92 有些情况下，更换地点就足以使纪念碑被接受：它们在本意要支配的中心空间里格外暴露，而可以在"不那么自命不凡或不那么苛求的地方"幸存。93

The easiest way to interfere with a monument is to add to it rather than subtract. Paint is handy for this, and colour itself may deliver specific messages. The hands of the Warsaw statue of Dzerzhinsky, for instance, were painted red prior to its destruction, visualizing the reasons for the execution in effigy of 'bloody Felix'. In Prague, an important debate was provoked by the unauthorized pink-washing of the first Soviet tank allegedly to have entered the town in May 1945, which had been promoted in 1946 to the status of monument to the liberation of Czechoslovakia but was considered, especially since 1968, as a symbol of invasion and occupation.94 As for verbal and iconic inscriptions, they were almost ubiquitous. Texts ranged from simple insults – 'hangman' (in Russian) corresponding to, or complementing, hands painted in red – to elaborate transformations of the inscriptions on pedestals. Photographs of the monument to Karl Marx in Moscow show two different and successive appropriations of the original message: to 'Proletarians of all countries, unite!' was added 'in the fight against communism!', before 'please forgive me!' was painted over both 'unite!' and the first graffito.95 We find here again the 'speaking monument' phenomenon (illus. 27, 28), and it must be added that the restorative cleaning of such inscriptions could be judged as amounting to the same 'cleansing of history' as the elimination of other monuments.96 A very different kind of adjunction, as already indicated, was constituted by the comments – mostly on boards attached to the monuments – that aimed to enable a critical confrontation with them. Generally, such interventions also intended to disarm rejection and aggression and to preserve the monuments (at least provisionally) by correcting offensively false messages that they could convey and, above all, by loosening or redefining their symbolic relationship and making clear that preserving them did not mean approving of what they stood for.97 In German, terms like Entfremdung and Verfremdung (estrangement, alienation) were used to define this process, which can be compared to putting a word between brackets. Many imaginative proposals were made to that purpose. Only some of them could be realized, and still less met with success. The recent history of the 'Betriebskampfgruppendenkmal' (factory fighters monument) in Berlin (illus. 32) can serve as an example of such attempts and failures. Erected in 1983 to commemorate the armed groups that were supposed to 'protect the DDR from the inside and the outside' and who had participated in the construction of the Wall, it became particularly controversial after the fall of the latter. The first interventions had been spontaneous: colour, a sprayed ironical comment, an 'artistic action' that consisted of surrounding the monument with ropes and letting plants cover it, the removal of the bronze figure of a boy handing flowers to the soldiers – which later decorated the office of the local mayor. The local government administration admitted that in the present context of political change the monument was provocative, but rejected a removal that would repeat the undemocratic way in which it had been erected and advocated, at least provisionally, a debate, to which the addition of a critical comment and of two pieces of the Wall were to contribute. But the plants were pulled out before they could grow, and the board carrying the comment was anonymously taken away. Further 'alienating' measures (a white cloth thrown over the statue, and tying it up with barbed wire from the Wall) did not prevent the assembly of the district representatives ordering its removal; it was taken into care by the Deutsches Historisches Museum in Berlin but still awaits a new location.98 As far as I know, the intellectually and financially more demanding solution, which consisted of complementing, and neutralizing, a monument by a new enduring 'anti-monument' could nowhere be realized.99 Neither was the proposal by a West German artist of dismantling the Dresden monument to Lenin and creating out of its parts a new composition evoking 'a museum depository or a field of archaeological ruins', in order to 'make the iconoclasm official and lasting' as well as to 'preserve the monument before its definitive removal'; the town council chose instead the most economic solution and gave the statue to a stonemason from Bavaria who was ready to pay for its removal.100

干预纪念碑最容易的方式是做加法而非减法。油漆就很方便，而颜色本身就能传达特定信息。例如华沙的捷尔任斯基雕像在被拆毁前，双手被漆成红色，把“血腥菲利克斯”被肖像处决的原因可视化。在布拉格，未经授权把据说1945年5月 first 驶入该市的苏联第一辆坦克涂成粉色，引发了一场重要争论——这辆坦克1946年被升格为纪念解放捷克斯洛伐克的纪念碑，但尤其自1968年起被视为入侵和占领的象征。94 至于文字与图像铭文，它们几乎无所不在。文本从简单的辱骂（俄语“刽子手”，对应或补充被漆红的双手）到对基座铭文的精心改造不等。莫斯科卡尔·马克思纪念碑的照片显示了对原初信息两次不同的、相继的挪用：在“全世界无产者，联合起来！”之后加上“在反对共产主义的斗争中！”，然后又在“联合起来！”和第一处涂鸦上涂写“请原谅我！”。95 我们在此再次遇到“说话的纪念碑”现象（图27、28）；还必须补充的是，对这类铭文的修复性清洗，可被视为与清除其他纪念碑同等的“清洗历史”。96 如前所述，另一种非常不同的附加物是评论——多为附在纪念碑上的牌子——旨在使人们能够与之进行批判性对峙。总体而言，此类干预也意在解除拒斥和攻击性，并通过纠正纪念碑可能传达的冒犯性错误信息、尤其是通过松动或重新界定其象征关系、并明确表示保存它们并不等于赞同其所代表之物，来（至少暂时地）保存纪念碑。97 在德语中，人们用Entfremdung和Verfremdung（疏离、间离）等词来界定这一过程，可与给一个词加上括号相比较。为此人们提出了许多富有想象力的方案，但只有少数得以实现，成功的更少。柏林“企业战斗队纪念碑”（图32）的近期历史可作为此类尝试与失败的例子。它竖立於1983年，纪念那些据称要“从内部和外部保卫东德”、并参与修筑柏林墙的武装组织；围墙倒塌后它变得格外有争议。最初的干预是自发的：上色、喷涂讽刺性评论、一次“艺术行动”（用绳索围住纪念碑并让植物覆盖它）、移走那个向士兵献花的男孩铜像——后者后来装饰了当地市长的办公室。地方政府承认，在当前政治变革的语境下这座纪念碑具有挑衅性，但拒绝以重复其竖立之不民主方式的手段来移走它，而主张至少暂时展开辩论，而附加一段批判性评论和两块柏林墙残片本应促成这场辩论。但植物还没长大就被拔掉，载有评论的牌子也被人匿名取走。进一步的“间离”措施（给雕像盖上白布，用来自围墙的带刺铁丝捆绑它）并未阻止区代表议会下令移走它；它由柏林德国历史博物馆保管，但仍在等待新地点。98 据我所知，那种在智识和资金上要求更高、即以一座新的持久“反纪念碑”来补充并中和纪念碑的方案，在任何地方都未能实现。99 一位西德艺术家提议拆毁德累斯顿列宁纪念碑，用其部件创作一件令人联想到“博物馆库房或考古废墟现场”的新构成，以便“使圣像破坏正式化和持久化”，并在“最终移走之前保存纪念碑”——这一提议也未被采纳；市议会反而选择了最经济的办法，把雕像送给了一位巴伐利亚石匠，此人愿意自费运走它。100

32 Gerhard Rommel’s 1983 monument to the Betriebskampfgruppen (‘factory fighters’) in Prenzlauer Berg Volkspark, Berlin, surrounded by barbed wire two days before its removal on 28 February 1992.

图32　格哈德·罗梅尔1983年创作的“企业战斗队”纪念碑，位于柏林普伦茨劳尔山人民公园；1992年2月28日移走前两天，碑身被带刺铁丝围住。



Other ideas, such as Alfred Hrdlicka's proposal to exchange monuments between East and West, or Vitaly Komar and Alexander Melamid's project of leaving a statue dangling from cranes in the air, had even less chance of being realized. The latter was part of an exhibition for projects to preserve the ex-Soviet monuments through transformation. Organized in 1993 by the ex-dissident artists Komar and Melamid, it ran concurrently in Moscow and in New York – in the Courtyard Gallery of Manhattan's World Financial Center – and intended to oppose the recurrent obliteration of Russian history.101 To some degree, the difference between unrealizable and realizable interventions overlaps that between ephemeral and definitive ones: while the former can express subversion and liberation, the latter must come to terms with management and the law. As deriding one power implies deriding all power, Stalin's boots might have left 'Stalin Square' even without the arrival of Soviet tanks. And it is characteristic of a libertarian 'revolution', such as the Paris movement of 1968, that it should generally have been content with metaphorical or provisional attacks on works of art, such as advertising for sale Puvis de Chavannes's mural paintings in the Sorbonne.102 In May 1968 Salvador Dalí had proposed filling 'monuments of bourgeois culture' with 'new information and modifying [their] function' rather than destroying them – for instance by neutralizing the aura of positivism of the monument to Auguste Comte with an erotic reliquary.103 His proposal could boast of a Surrealist ancestry: in 1933 the group led by André Breton had spontaneously asked itself whether a certain number of Parisian monuments ought to be 'preserved, displaced, modified, transformed or suppressed'. As can be guessed, most proposals were of the modifying type, but Paul Eluard advocated a 'careful repetition' of the 1871 'ceremony' of the fall of the Vendôme column (illus. 12).104 In the case of monuments of the Communist era, too, most artistic interventions dealt with the images rather than with the objects; but they did represent metaphorical appropriations, alienations and reinterpretations of these monuments in ways sometimes analogous to the ones that we have examined.

另一些想法，如阿尔弗雷德·赫德利奇卡提议在东西方之间交换纪念碑，或维塔利·科马尔和亚历山大·梅拉米德提出把雕像用吊车吊在空中摇晃的方案，实现的机会就更小了。后者是一个"通过改造保存前苏联纪念碑"项目展的一部分。该展由前异见艺术家科马尔和梅拉米德于1993年组织，同时在莫斯科和纽约（曼哈顿世界金融中心庭院画廊）举行，意在反对对俄国历史的不断抹除。101　在某种程度上，不可实现与可实现干预之间的区别，与短暂性和决定性干预之间的区别相重叠：前者可以表达颠覆和解放，后者则必须与管理和法律妥协。正如嘲弄一种权力意味着嘲弄一切权力，即便没有苏联坦克到来，斯大林的靴子或许也会离开"斯大林广场"。而像1968年巴黎运动那样的自由意志主义"革命"，其特征通常是满足于对艺术品进行隐喻性或临时性的攻击，例如在索邦大学贴广告出售皮维·德·夏凡纳的壁画。102　1968年5月，萨尔瓦多·达利曾提议用"新信息"填充"资产阶级文化的纪念碑"并"改变其功能"，而非摧毁它们——例如用一个情色圣物盒来中和奥古斯特·孔德纪念碑的实证主义灵光。103　他的方案可夸耀有超现实主义的谱系：1933年，安德烈·布勒东领导的团体曾自发自问，若干巴黎纪念碑是否应当"保存、迁移、修改、改造或废除"。可以想见，大多数方案属于修改类，但保罗·艾吕雅主张"小心地重演"1871年旺多姆圆柱倒塌的"仪式"（图12）。104　就共产主义时代的纪念碑而言，大多数艺术干预也针对图像而非对象；但它们确实以有时与我们所考察者类似的方式，对这些纪念碑进行了隐喻性的挪用、间离和重新阐释。

The modifications that reinterpretation generally called for during the ‘transition phase’ could also be achieved by subtraction. Removing the emblem of Party and state could suffice – at least provisionally – for buildings but not for monuments, which had been entirely devised as symbolic. And even freed from inscriptions, these tended to remain prisoners of the semantic univocality postulated by Socialist Realism and by their propagandistic function. In Budapest, a process of generalization via elimination allowed the Liberation monument, erected in 1947 on the summit of Gellért Hill to commemorate the liberation of Hungary by the Soviet army, to become a monument to freedom. The high pedestal was stripped of its five-pointed cross, of its Cyrillic inscription – replaced by a celebration of liberty conceived in the broadest terms – and of the bronze statue of a flag-carrying Russian soldier, whereas the surmounting figure of a woman holding a palm-leaf towards the sky and the supporting allegories of progress and destruction remained untouched. Among the reasons for the success of what he defines as a compromise, Ernö Marosi mentions the fact that people had become accustomed to the monument, that it fitted well in the topography and image of the city, the fear of what a removal would have cost, and finally the acceptability of this stylistically conservative work by Zsigmond Kisfaludy Stróbl to conservative taste.105 Violent degradations and destructions have been discussed in abundance. The staged or ritualized character of the collective events has also been mentioned, and so have the resemblances to earlier cases and forms of image abuse. It is reported that when workers bound a cable under the arms of the Dzerzhinsky statue in Warsaw, the public shouted – ‘Hold him by the neck! Hold him!’ A particularly interesting photograph of 1991 shows a monument to Stalin opposite to Charles Bridge in Prague with a broken nose, the head torn off and bent at a right angle, and a crucifix placed behind.106 But it remains to examine the ways in which monuments were stored and yet made accessible (or not). We have seen that those destroyed were generally broken, cut or sawn into pieces and preserved, given, sold or bought – as tokens, relics or souvenirs – by individuals and occasionally or eventually by institutions. Recycling of the material itself, with its infinite and often redundant symbolic possibilities, is rarely documented (Hungarians wondered about casting bells from the bronze of the statues so that their chimes would remind people of dictatorship).107 Clearly, storage of every kind, including in museums, was considered as a last resort. The director of the Deutsches Historisches Museum in Berlin, Christoph Stölzl, declared to the journal Pan – perhaps in part as a way of advocating the preservation in situ of the monument to Marx and Engels – that ‘transporting to a depository was no aesthetic action but only revealed that one did not know what to do’, and Christine Hoh-Slodczyk stated that as with destruction or removal, the preservation in museums could not replace a real confrontation with the object.108 Another author noted in 1992 that the ‘process of “museumization” of these objects had just begun’, that it did not yet seem to be directly possible, and that the frequent triumphal or ironical way in which they were presented was as much a response to their former cultic use as was ritual destruction.109 Staging can indeed be another form or a continuation of defacing. This is particularly visible in the open-air spaces in which several East European towns have brought together the statues that had been removed or were to be disposed of. In Moscow, the statue park, situated near the Tretiakov Gallery (in which all Soviet art posterior to Cubo-Futurism had been removed from the exhibition rooms), was conceived as an exhibition of a small part of the stored works and a prefiguration of a ‘Museum of Totalitarianism’.110 But the informal, desultory or absurd presentation – no pedestals, traces of paint, prone position – gave the visitors unmistakable interpretative and behavioural hints that this was banishment and not promotion, and that the works were there neither to be venerated nor to be admired but rather to be laughed at (illus. 33). Of course, such paradoxical ‘museumizations’ may be more an expression of cautiousness or realism (objects in the Prague open-air exhibition were attacked every night) than of will.111 A less ambiguous realization can significantly be found in Budapest. The ‘Statue Park’ (Szoborpark) was opened in the summer of 1993, after a radicalization of political life and a multiplication of

attacks against monuments had made urgent a decision taken eighteen months earlier by the city council. Sixty-one particularly censured monuments were removed from their sites and brought to an area proposed by a marginal district. The distribution of the statues and the minimal architecture were determined after a competition. Difficulties abounded: neighbours objected, the park had to close after 40 days and could only re-open thanks to the intervention of a private manager. At the entrance, a large plaque has engraved on it (in Hungarian) Gyula Illyés's celebrated poem of 1952, A Sentence on Tyranny, which mentions 'statues as bombastic as deceitful' among ubiquitous expressions of dictatorship. But visitors are given information on the date, original site, author and subject of each exhibited work, and a generally neutral presentation allows of the great variety of attitudes and uses that can be observed, from the collected meditation of elderly Hungarians to the playful irony of younger ones and the curiosity, scholarly or journalistic interest of foreigners (illus. 34).112

在"过渡阶段"，重新阐释通常要求的改造也可以通过做减法来实现。对党和国家徽章的移走——至少暂时地——对建筑或许足够，但对完全被设计成象征性的纪念碑则不然。即便从铭文中解放出来，它们也往往仍是社会主义现实主义及其宣传功能所设定的语义单一性的囚徒。在布达佩斯，一个通过清除而进行概括的过程，使1947年为纪念苏军解放匈牙利而竖立在盖勒特山顶的"解放纪念碑"变成了"自由纪念碑"。高大基座上的五芒星十字架被剥除，西里尔文铭文被剥除（代之以最宽泛意义上的对自由的颂扬），持旗俄国士兵的铜像也被移走；而顶端那位向天空举着棕榈叶的女性形象、以及支撑性的进步与毁灭寓言则保持原样。在埃尔诺·马罗西看来，他所定义的这一妥协之所以成功，原因包括：人们已习惯这座纪念碑；它与城市地形和形象契合良好；人们担心移走会付出高昂代价；以及最后，齐格蒙德·基什法鲁迪·斯特罗布尔这件风格保守的作品能为保守趣味所接受。105　暴力的损毁与破坏已被大量讨论。集体事件的舞台化或仪式化特征也已提及，与早期案例和图像虐待形式的相似之处亦然。据报道，在华沙，当工人们把钢索套在捷尔任斯基雕像腋下时，公众高喊："勒住他的脖子！勒住他！"1991年一张特别有趣的照片显示，布拉格查理大桥对面的一座斯大林纪念碑鼻子破碎、头颅被扯下并弯成直角，后面还放着一个十字架。106　但仍需考察纪念碑被库存却仍可（或不可）被接近的方式。我们已经看到，那些被摧毁的对象通常被打碎、切开或锯成碎片，由个人（偶尔或最终由机构）作为标记、圣物或纪念品保存、赠送、出售或购买。物质本身的回收利用——及其无限且往往冗余的象征可能性——则鲜有记载（匈牙利人曾设想用雕像的青铜铸钟，让钟声提醒人们专政的存在）。107　显然，包括博物馆在内的各种库存都被视为最后手段。柏林德国历史博物馆馆长克里斯托夫·施特尔茨尔对《Pan》杂志表示——或许部分是为了倡导原地保存马克思-恩格斯纪念碑——"运到库房不是审美行动，只是表明人们不知道该怎么办"；克里斯蒂娜·霍-斯洛奇克则说，与破坏或移走一样，博物馆保存不能取代与对象的真实对峙。108 另一位作者1992年指出，这些对象的"博物馆化"过程才刚刚开始，似乎尚不可能直接实现；而它们被展出时那种常带凯旋或讽刺意味的方式，与仪式性破坏一样，都是对其以往崇拜用途的回应。109　舞台化确实可能是污损的另一种形式或延续。这在东欧几座城市把已移走或待处置雕像集中起来的露天场地中尤为明显。在莫斯科，雕像公园位于特列季亚科夫画廊附近（该画廊已把立体-未来主义之后的全部苏联艺术从展厅中撤下），被设想为库存作品一小部分的展览和一座"极权主义博物馆"的预演。110 但那种非正式的、杂乱或荒诞的陈列——没有基座、油漆痕迹、俯卧姿态——给游客以明白无误的阐释和行为暗示：这是放逐而非晋升，这些作品在那里既不是为了被崇拜也不是为了被欣赏，而是为了被嘲笑（图33）。当然，这种悖论式的"博物馆化"或许更多是谨慎或现实主义的表达（布拉格露天展中的对象每晚都遭袭击），而非意志。111　一个不那么暧昧的实现，恰可在布达佩斯看到。"雕像公园"（Szoborpark）于1993年夏开放，此前政治生活激进化、对纪念碑的袭击增多，使市议会十八个月前作出的决定变得紧迫。61座受到特别指责的纪念碑从原址移走，运到一个由边缘区提议的场地。雕像的布局和极简建筑经过竞赛确定。困难重重：邻居反对，公园开放40天后不得不关闭，多亏一位私人经理介入才重新开放。入口处一块大铜牌上刻着（匈牙利文）尤利乌斯·伊利耶什1952年名诗《论暴政》，其中在无处不在的专政表现里提到"像欺骗一样浮夸的雕像"。但游客可获得每件展品的年代、原址、作者和主题信息，总体中立的陈列允许人们观察到各种各样的态度和用途——从匈牙利老年人沉静的沉思，到年轻人游戏性的讽刺，再到外

国人的好奇、学术或新闻兴趣（图34）。112

33 The ‘Temporary Museum of Totalitarian Art’ statue park near the State Tretiakov Gallery, Moscow, in 1992, with statues of, from left to right, Kalinin, Stalin, and Sverdlov.

图33 1992年莫斯科国立特列季亚科夫画廊附近的“临时极权艺术博物馆”雕像公园，从左至右为加里宁、斯大林和斯维尔德洛夫像。



There remain to be mentioned private initiatives of preservation and the role of the market. Information is scarce, and a few indications must suffice here. Many hopes of exchanging a cumbersome legacy for foreign currencies seem to have met with disappointment, particularly for very large monuments. But the gallery Regina in Moscow, for instance, which distinguished itself with happenings and performances, has begun to sell ‘totalitarian art’, almost exclusively to foreigners, and the present location of works included in recent exhibitions shows that institutional buyers are also responding to such offers, among others American university museums.113 In Germany, the public trustee (Treuhandanstalt) in charge of selling the former state property of the DDR decided not to bring to auction the 12,000 art objects that were included – surely a financially as well as a politically wise attitude.114 The stonemason Josef Kurz, who acquired the Dresden Lenin monument, has already been mentioned; between 1989 and his death in 1994 he collected a number of statues of the Communist era, explaining that he admired their craftsmanship and material, and certainly enjoyed the political provocation represented by their exhibition on his private land in Gundelfingen an der Donau in Bavaria.115

还需要提及私人保存倡议和市场的作用。信息稀少，此处仅举数端。把这份笨重遗产换成外币的许多希望似乎落了空，尤其是对非常巨大的纪念碑而言。但莫斯科的“雷吉娜”画廊——以偶发艺术和行为艺术著称——已开始出售“极权艺术”，几乎只卖给外国人；近期展览中作品的现藏地表明，机构买家也在回应这类报价，其中包括美国大学博物馆。113 在德国，负责出售前东德国有资产的托管局（Treuhandanstalt）决定不把所涉12,000件艺术品拍卖——这在财政和政治上无疑都是明智态度。114 前文已提到获得德累斯顿列宁纪念碑的石匠约瑟夫·库尔茨；从1989年到1994年去世，他收集了若干共产主义时代雕像，解释说他欣赏其工艺和材料，当然也享受这些雕像陈列在他位于巴伐利亚贡德尔芬根镇多瑙河畔私产上所代表的政治挑衅。115

34 The Szoborpark (Statue Park), Budapest, 17 April 1995, with visitors in front and on the pedestal of the monument to the Republic of Councils by István Kiss (1969).

图34　1995年4月17日，布达佩斯雕像公园。游客们聚集在伊什特万·基什1969年创作的苏维埃共和国纪念碑基座前和基座上。



柏林的列宁

Lenin in Berlin

The way monuments were treated in Germany, especially in Berlin, is of particular interest for us, since there ‘the West’ was directly confronted and involved with ‘the East’ – or with the former East. To write the history of this question in Berlin alone would require a whole book, and we must be content with examining in some detail the most polemical and influential case, that of the monument to Lenin in Berlin-Friedrichshain (illus. 28, 35–9).116

在德国——尤其是柏林——对待纪念碑的方式对我们特别有意义，因为在那里，“西方”与“东方”（或前东方）直接面对并纠缠在一起。仅就柏林一地写这个问题的历史就需要整本书，我们只能满足于较详细地考察最具争议、最有影响的一个案例，即柏林-弗里德里希斯海林的列宁纪念碑（图28、35—39）。116

Leninplatz (Lenin Square), with its 1200 flats in three high buildings, had been designed by Hermann Henselmann together with Heinz Mehlan and constructed in 1968–70. Henselmann had planned, in the centre of the square, a functional and semi-abstract monument in the guise of a spiral library evoking a flag and echoing the silhouette of the apartment buildings.117 But the highest state authorities opposed this aspect of the plans, demanding a figurative monument and directly commissioned the Moscovite sculptor Nicolai V. Tomsky to realize it – a token of the pan-Communist hegemony of Russian art and its government-imposed tutelage on East German artists, whose version of Socialist Realism was among the most modern ones. Tomsky (1900–84), named president of the USSR Academy of Arts in 1968, had been the Soviet sculptor par excellence since the War. An advocator of 'typical generalization', he was the author of several major Lenin statues in Soviet towns. Although Soviet sculpture had generally tended to use architecture as a mere pedestal or background, he was required to take the setting of the square into account and proposed another echo to the buildings with the large abstracted form of a flag behind Lenin's effigy. The 19-metres-high monument was inaugurated on 19 April 1970 – the 100th anniversary of Lenin's birth – in front of 200,000 persons (illus. 35). In his speech, the first secretary of the Party and chief of state Walter Ulbricht defined the statue as one of the new symbols needed to replace the old ones in the city (among others the royal castle), and the Soviet ambassador Piotr Abrasimov declared that it was a symbol of the 'unshakeable friendship between the DDR and the Soviet Union' – indeed, the monument may have been meant as a kind of compensation for Ulbricht's programme of economic reform of which Brezhnev disapproved.118 For the occasion, Tomsky had somewhat modernized his formal language and resorted to slightly geometrically simplified forms. Lenin's attitude combined human nearness (the hand on the reverse of the coat) with authority and dynamism (the gaze, the flag). Tomsky stated that the solidity of the red Ukrainian granite was to express the victory and immortality of Lenin's ideas; the same characteristics could later be interpreted, as one commentator put it, as symbolizing the coagulation of these ideas, the brutality and petrification of 'existing Socialism'.119 But in November 1989, Tomsky's Lenin was no more objected to than the vast majority of DDR (intentional) monuments. In general, polemics and anonymous attacks began to appear in the spring of 1990.120 Art-history students in West and East Berlin founded an association named 'Initiative politische Denkmäler der DDR' to promote a constructive and critical approach, and demanded from the Senate the creation of an independent commission to examine the monumental legacy of both parts of the city. A documentary exhibition on the monuments of East Berlin, entitled Erhalten – Zerstören – Verändern? (preserve – destroy – modify?) was organized in a small museum not far from Leninplatz by the 'Initiative' together with two other Western associations, the 'Neue Gesellschaft für Bildende Kunst' (New Society for the Visual Arts) – a radical organization, born in 1969 of the splitting of the former West Berlin 'Deutsche Gesellschaft für Bildende Kunst', which had subsequently defended political art and realistic form – and the 'Aktives Museum Faschismus und Widerstand'.121 As for the monument to Lenin, a graphic artist proposed to let ivy and vine cover it – an idea approved of by some but the realization of which was, as in other cases, anonymously interrupted.122 A temporary appropriation and anti-monumental reinterpretation of the statue occurred on 2 and 4 September 1990 in the context of a topical exhibition of contemporary art entitled 'Die Endlichkeit der Freiheit' (the finitude of freedom): the Polish-born artist Krzysztof Wodiczko chose it as the target of one of his 'public projections' and transformed Lenin into a Polish shopper equipped with a cart filled with cheap electronic products, 'to be used as barter back in Warsaw' (illus. 36).123

列宁广场由三栋高楼、1200套公寓组成，由赫尔曼·亨塞尔曼与海因茨·梅兰设计，建于1968至1970年。亨塞尔曼原计划在广场中央建一座功能性的、半抽象的纪念碑，形似一座螺旋式藏书楼，令人联想到一面旗帜，并与公寓楼的轮廓相呼应。117

但最高国家当局反对这一设计，要求一座具象纪念碑，并直接委托莫斯科雕塑家尼古拉·V. 托姆斯基来实现——这是俄国艺术的泛共产主义霸权及其强加于东德艺术家的政府监护的一个标志，而东德艺术家的社会主义现实主义版本本是其中最现代的。托姆斯基（1900—1984）1968年任苏联美术学院院长，是战后苏联首屈一指的雕塑家。他倡导“典型化概括”，是苏联城镇多座大型列宁像的作者。尽管苏联雕塑一般倾向于把建筑仅当作基座或背景，但他被要求考虑广场环境，并在列宁像身后以一面巨大的抽象化旗帜形式与楼房形成呼应。这座19米高的纪念碑于1970年4月19日——列宁诞辰一百周年——在二十万人面前落成（图35）。党第一书记兼国家元首瓦尔特·乌布利希在讲话中把这座雕像定为城市中用以取代旧象征（包括王宫）的新象征之一；苏联大使彼得·阿布拉西莫夫宣布它是“东德与苏联不可动摇友谊”的象征——事实上，这座纪念碑或许也是对乌布利希那套勃列日涅夫不赞成的经济改革方案的一种补偿。118 为此，托姆斯基对自己的形式语言作了某种现代化，采用了略作几何简化的造型。列宁的姿态把人的亲近感（背在大衣后的手）与权威和动感（目光、旗帜）结合起来。托姆斯基说，红色乌克兰花岗岩的坚硬是为了表达列宁思想的胜利与不朽；而同一特征后来也可被解释为——如一位评论者所言——象征这些思想的凝固、以及“现实存在的社会主义”的残暴与石化。119 但1989年11月，托姆斯基的列宁像与东德绝大多数（有意建造的）纪念碑一样，并无人反对。一般而言，争论和匿名袭击到1990年春才开始出现。120 西柏林和东柏林的艺术史学生成立了一个名为“东德政治纪念碑倡议”的协会，提倡建设性的批判性态度，并要求参议院设立一个独立委员会审查城市两部分的纪念碑遗产。一个题为《保存——拆毁——改造？》的东德纪念碑文献展，由该“倡议”与另外两个西方协会——“新视觉艺术协会”（1969年从原西柏林“德国视觉艺术协会”分裂出来的激进组织，后者此后曾捍卫政治艺术和现实主义形式）以及“法西斯主义与抵抗行动博物馆”——在离列宁广场不远的一座小博物馆中共同组织。121 至于列宁纪念碑，一位平面艺术家提议让常春藤和藤蔓覆盖它——这一想法得到一些人赞同，但如其他情况一样，其实现被匿名中断。122 1990年9月2日和4日，在题为《自由的有限性》的当代艺术主题展语境中，对雕像进行了一次临时挪用和反纪念碑式的重新阐释：生于波兰的艺术家克日什托夫·沃季奇科选它作为一次“公共投影”的目标，把列宁变成了一个波兰购物者，推着装满廉价电子产品的购物车，“好带回华沙当换货用”（图36）。123

35 The inauguration of Tomsky’s Lenin monument in the Leninplatz, East Berlin, on 19 April 1970.

图35 1970年4月19日，东柏林列宁广场，托姆斯基列宁纪念碑落成典礼。



After German unification in October 1990, the decision of the federal Parliament in June 1991 to transfer its seat of government to Berlin, and the failed coup of August 1991 in Moscow with its highly publicized iconoclastic sequels, the removal of ‘Communist monuments’ became significant politically for the German parties at the various levels of country, city and districts (Bezirke), as well as economically for town-planners, architects and property speculators. In the provisions of the coalition agreement made by the CDU (conservative) and SPD (progressive) members of the Senate of reunited Berlin there was mentioned the creation of a commission charged with making proposals for the handling of monuments in (principally East) Berlin; but this commission was not put up until after Tomsky’s Lenin had been dismantled, so that it was deprived of its most important object.

1990年10月德国统一后，1991年6月联邦议会决定把政府驻地迁往柏林，加上1991年8月莫斯科未遂政变及其被大肆报道的圣像破坏后果，“共产主义纪念碑”的移走在政治上对州、市、区（Bezirke）各级德国政党变得重要，在经济上对城市规划者、建筑师和房地产投机者亦然。在统一后柏林参议院由基民盟（保守派）和社民党（进步派）成员达成的联合协议条款中，提到设立一个委员会，负责就如何处置柏林（主要是东柏林）的纪念碑提出建议；但这个委员会直到托姆斯基的列宁像被拆毁后才成立，从而被剥夺了它最重要的对象。

On 18 September 1991, the representative assembly of the Friedrichshain district decided by 40 votes against 33 to request from the Senate a ‘total, careful removal of the statue of Lenin from Leninplatz’; but at least 1000 inhabitants of the neighbourhood declared that they wanted it to stay.124 In conformity with the Berlin ‘Überleitungsgesetz’ (transition law), the Friedrichshain Lenin was further administratively protected as a historical monument. Nevertheless, the CDU Senator in charge of city development and environment, Volker Hassemer, who was responsible for the preservation of monuments, asked his SPD colleague in charge of buildings to authorize its removal, explaining that it did not stand for Socialism but for ‘the reality of despotism’, pointing to the danger of ‘problematic developments’ due to ‘popular wrath’. The Bausenator disapproved of the procedure – he even compared it with the destruction of the royal castle – but the CDU mayor favoured it, supported among others by Helmut Kohl, and, in the end, no political party opposed it except the minority Left-wing group ‘Bündnis 90/Grüne’, some members of which put up a provocative proposal to demolish as ‘politically loaded’ the Victory Column (Siegessäule) in the Western part of the city, a monument erected in 1873 to commemorate Prussian victories over Denmark, Austria and France.

1991年9月18日，弗里德里希斯海因区代表议会以40票对33票决定，请求参议院“彻底而谨慎地把列宁雕像从列宁广场移走”；但至少1000名附近居民公开表示希望它留下。124 根据柏林《过渡法》，弗里德里希斯海因的列宁像还在行政上被作为历史纪念碑加以保护。尽管如此，负责城市发展与环境、同时负责文物保护的基民盟参议员沃尔克·哈塞默，还是要求他那位负责建筑的社民党同僚批准移走，解释说它并不代表社会主义，而是代表“专制的现实”，并指出“民众愤怒”可能导致“问题性事态”的危险。建筑参议员不赞成这一程序——他甚至把它比作拆毁王宫——但基民盟市长支持这一做法，赫尔穆特·科尔等人也支持；最终除少数派左翼团体“联盟90/绿党”外，没有政党反对，而该团体部分成员还提出一个挑衅性动议，要把西柏林胜利纪念柱（Siegessäule）作为“政治上负载过重”的建筑拆毁——那是1873年为纪念普鲁士战胜丹麦、奥地利和法国而建。

36 Krzysztof Wodiczko, Lenin Monument, Leninplatz, East Berlin, 2 or 4 September 1990, projection organized by the Deutscher akademischer Austauschdienst in conjunction with the exhibition Die Endlichkeit der Freiheit.

图36　克日什托夫·沃季奇科，《列宁纪念碑》，东柏林列宁广场，1990年9月2日或4日；由德国学术交流中心与《自由的有限性》展联合组织的投影。



None the less, many objections were raised against what some called ‘blind destructive fury’ and ‘primitive iconoclasm’.125 Curators of monuments, anxious to preserve coherent wholes rather than isolated objects, warned that the removal of the monument would create a void and provoke a visual collapse of Leninplatz.126 As one journalist noted, the monument had also become a ‘petrified biography’ for East Berliners, who felt as if the ‘Wessis’ wanted to take away everything from them.127 The ‘Initiative politische Denkmäler der DDR’, together with an inhabitant of Leninplatz, brought the case before the administrative court and stressed the historical, scientific and urban importance of the monument. Their request was rejected on the grounds that private persons were not entitled to intervene in a matter of general public interest. The city deputies ordered the monument to be taken away carefully so that it might be re-erected elsewhere (the idea of a statue park was also mentioned). On 15 October it was cancelled from the list of monuments enjoying the protection of the state.128 On 1 November 1991 it was surrounded by barriers and a crane. Artists from the Kreuzberg quarter found imaginative ways of denouncing ‘violence’ and the ‘elimination of history’ (illus. 37). One poster on the barriers asked: ‘When do books burn?’129 On 4 November, Tomsky’s widow, contacted by the ‘Initiative’, asserted a moral right to object to the removal of the work from the context for which it had been created. By 8 November her last appeal was rejected by the Berlin supreme court, which considered that the author’s interest in the respect due to his work had to yield in this case to the owner’s – i.e. the city’s – interest in removing the monument as a scandalous symbol of an obsolete system. The court added that the author had to take into account the fact that ‘with the creation of the monument to Lenin, he had placed his art in the service of a propagandist hero cult’ and to ‘accept that the current historical events could not as a consequence leave his work untouched’, so that even irretrievable damage that might be caused by the dismantling would have to be regarded as ‘traces of history, to be accepted by the author, rather than as signs of an artistic depreciation’.130 Such traces would indeed be produced: once the head was taken down, the dismantling proved to be longer, more difficult and more expensive than had been expected, and it was only finished on 8 February 1992. The pieces of the statue were deposited on a former practice range.131

尽管如此，针对一些人所谓的“盲目的破坏狂怒”和“原始圣像破坏”，仍有许多反对意见。125 文物保护者急于保护连贯的整体而非孤立对象，他们警告说，移走纪念碑将造成空洞，并引发列宁广场视觉上的崩塌。126 正如一位记者所言，这座纪念碑对东柏林人来说也已成为一部“石化的传记”，他们觉得仿佛“西德佬”要把一切都从他们身边夺走。127 “东德政治纪念碑倡议”与列宁广场的一位居民一起，把案件提交行政法院，强调该纪念碑在历史、科学和城市上的重要性。他们的请求被驳回，理由是私人无权干预涉及公共利益的事务。市议员下令小心移走纪念碑，以便日后在他处复建（也提到了雕像公园的想法）。10月15日，它被从国家保护纪念碑名单中除名。128 1991年11月1日，它被围栏和吊车团团围住。克罗伊茨贝格区的艺术家们以富有想象力的方式谴责“暴力”和“对历史的清除”（图37）。围栏上一张海报问道：“书什么时候被烧？”129 11月4日，托姆斯基的遗孀经“倡议”联系后，主张拥有道德上的权利，反对把作品从它为之创作的语境中移走。到11月8日，她的最后一次上诉被柏林高等法院驳回；法院认为，在本案中，作者对其作品应受尊重的利益，必须让位于所有者——即城市——把这座纪念碑作为过时制度的可鄙象征加以移除的利益。法院补充说，作者必须考虑到“随着列宁纪念碑的创作，他已把自己的艺术服务于一种宣传性的英雄崇拜”，并必须“接受当前历史事件不可能因此而对其作品毫发无损”，以至于拆毁可能造成的不可挽回的损害也必须被视为“历史的痕迹，应由作者接受，而非艺术贬损的标志”。130 这样的痕迹确实出现了：一旦头部被取下，拆毁过程就被证明比预期更长、更难、更贵，直到1992年2月8日才完成。雕像的碎片被存放在一个旧打靶场上。131

37 Tomsky's Lenin monument in the Leninplatz, behind barriers with posters, on 4 November 1991. Note in particular a pseudo-official poster from the Büro für ungewöhnliche Maßnahmen ('Office for Unusual Measures') announcing 'Here the Senate of Berlin removes Germano-German history in the context of a cleansing action against dissenters. Sponsors: Cewa Wipe-and-Go. Receivers: Blackout & Co Ltd'.

图37　1991年11月4日，列宁广场上托姆斯基的列宁纪念碑，被贴满海报的围栏围住。特别注意一张由"非常规措施局"发布的仿官方海报，上面写着："柏林参议院在此以清洗异见者为名清除德德历史。赞助商：Cewa即擦即净公司。接收方：停电有限公司。"



六个月后，联合国广场（列宁广场此后改名）仍呈现着其他痕迹——那是对这座纪念碑及其所附记忆的准丧葬或还愿式崇拜的痕迹。132　曾经挂旗的杆子上贴着小海报，展出丰富的文本、诗歌、照片和漫画，有些暗指共产主义符号被德意志银行或可口可乐等资本主义符号所取代。纪念碑的模板剪影被喷涂在地面和花岗岩板上，有时与东柏林的另一个视觉符号——电视塔——组合在一起（图38）。石板边缘刻着如下铭文："不要暴力"、"反对圣像破坏者"、"布莱希特1947：自由与民主"、"而地是空虚混沌（创世记）"（图39）。

评判标准与审美贬损

弗里德里希斯海林列宁纪念碑的历史再清楚不过地表明，不能把政治圣像破坏视为一种非西方的古风现象。在这一案例中——而且这一观察总体上适用于柏林——支持和反对拆毁的人都来自东方和西方。当然，双方都不是同质群体，各自都有多种动机。政治目的和立场显然起了作用，但似乎并非选择的唯一因素。文化和社会因素一定同样有影响，尽管难以追溯。如我们所见，职业政客几乎一致谴责这座纪念碑，而大多数文化专业人士至少要求设立一个独立咨询委员会（德国历史博物馆馆长和西柏林美术学院院长都反对移走）。133　托姆斯基雕像的破坏性移走，把"以专业为基础的文化遗产保护意图与日常政治之间的冲突"公之于众，并促成了上述委员会的成立。134

这个委员会的存在有助于节省时间并促进讨论；但其组成颇有争议，任务也仅限于审查城市东部的战后纪念碑。135　委员会成立于1992年2月，一年后公布结论和建议，其中一些前文已述。其报告导言列出了若干标准，其中值得在此概述的基本假定是：一个政权所竖立的纪念碑，既然服务于该政权的合法化和巩固，那么当这个政权崩溃或被推翻时，便丧失了存在的权利；那些仅服务于独裁的自我呈现和意识形态拔高、或颂扬其领袖的纪念碑，在民主社会中没有位置；每个社会都有权凸显自己的历史观。报告还把东德时代的纪念碑定性为大体上不具有重大艺术意义。136

图38 1992年7月，联合国广场（原列宁广场），地面上喷涂着托姆斯基列宁纪念碑的两个模板剪影：一个是人物配旗帜状背景，另一个仿佛从背面看，旁边是柏林电视塔。



图39 1992年7月，柏林联合国广场（原列宁广场）。托姆斯基列宁纪念碑基座边缘刻着铭文：“而地是空虚混沌。”



图40 弗里茨·克雷默1968年在柏林弗里德里希斯海林创作的纪念碑，纪念参加西班牙内战的德国人。



我认为，就圣像破坏史而言，从"共产主义纪念碑"的倒塌中可以得出的主要观察是：审美论证几乎被用来主张或辩护其移走或摧毁，而非保存。艺术质量和作者身份的差异，似乎并未在决定哪些纪念碑遭袭、哪些幸免方面起主要作用——至少在委员会审查之前如此。137　图像志当然重要，但它是与或多或少的形式特征——如巨大的尺寸、威严的位置、盛气凌人的表情——一起起作用的。138　材料本身的坚硬，如托姆斯基的列宁像，往往被作负面解释。弗里茨·克雷默1968年那座纪念德国参加西班牙内战者的柏林纪念碑（图40），其复杂性并未阻止它也遭到袭击：而且是在夜间匿名进行，因此人们可能永远不会知道原因；但它在柏林参议院的资助下得到了异乎寻常的修复，并于1992年9月由柏林-弗里德里希斯海林区区长主持重新揭幕。139　雕像整体上的艺术无价值常被视为理所当然，无人觉得有必要证明。在柏林，一句被广泛引用的审美谴责来自一位曾短暂在东德文化政策中担任专家的人，他写道，必须结束这种被放在高基座上的非艺术每日对趣味造成的扭曲。艺术家们加入他的行列，谴责这种影响——尤其是对儿童的影响；一位评论者则批评他们屈尊俯就的态度，忽视了接受中的个体差异和转变。140　另一位评论者担心西方文物保护者的干预，他说这些人会倾向于一种后现代实证主义，因为他们早已不再信任自己的判断——他说，这些对象曾是社会主义使用艺术，如今是绊脚石，很快将成为二级原料。141与这种不加修饰、自以为是的裁决相对应的，是保存支持者在审美层面进入讨论时——如果他们确实进入了的话——那种谨慎而保留的方式。展览图录《保存——拆毁——改造？》前言明确表示，它并不主要从艺术价值角度研究所选纪念碑，而必须把它们作为重要历史文献来保存和接近。克里斯蒂娜·霍-斯洛奇克也提出，她所呼吁的委员会必须根据历史关系而非艺术标准来评判这些纪念碑。142

在艺术史家中，德国主要的捍卫者是汉斯-恩斯特·米蒂希，西柏林艺术高等学校教授。143 在一份反对拆毁托姆斯基列宁像的呼吁中，他先复述并回应了反对者的论证，随后也把其保存论证为可见的历史见证和身份建构的工具。144　最后，面对它根本就是一件糟糕的艺术品这一说法，他强调了雕像中基座与人物一体化的形式趣味；但他首先指出，审美评价是出了名地主观和多变，而且大多被用作表达政治厌恶的借口。145　在一次关于如何处置东德各党和群众组织艺术品的公开辩论中，马丁·瓦恩克强调必须为其保存提供理由，并认为不存在有效的历史或审美论证来这样做。146　东德艺术史家彼得·费斯特公正地指出：世界上的博物馆展出着无数来自许多世纪、同样在歪曲历史的艺术品，而且从来就没有过评判东德艺术审美价值的毋庸置疑标准。146　大多数雕像公园那种暧昧或干脆亵渎的性质前文已述；而一座历史博物馆而非艺术博物馆促成了某些东德纪念碑的保存，这一事实也已显而易见。1992年，卡塞尔文献展策展人扬·霍特宣称，前东德的绘画不值得保存，与艺术毫无关系。147

德累斯顿国家艺术收藏馆馆长也持这种本质主义观点，认为非艺术之物不能被艺术性地改造。148　至于沉默，弗里德里希斯海林列宁像的当地捍卫者致函英国、丹麦、奥地利、瑞士和荷兰的美术学院征求意见，均未获回复。149 显然，成问题的不仅是共产主义时代艺术的质量，更是其地位本身。150 在一些作者看来，这些对象如今不能轻易地被视为艺术，是因为它们从来就不是；例如斯大林的雕像不是西方世俗化和艺术意义上的雕像，相反，它们是用于引入这位伟人神秘临在的崇拜物。151　但这种解释只是把西方把艺术视为自主活动的观念普遍化了，并未公正对待以下事实：共产主义政权曾提倡一种相反的艺术观念，而这种观念只是在自己的地盘上被西方标准逐步攻击和击败。152

当然，关键在于，最晚到1989年，共产主义时代的纪念碑和其他作品就是以这些标准来评判的。153